Bread, Rent and Fuel: Necessity Inflation and the Far-Right Vote in Europe, 2004-2021 – Methodological Appendix

Victor Garcia Miranda – FSU Jena ; U.Porto ; The Federal University of Mato Grosso do Sul, Brazil

This appendix documents the design of *Bread, Rent and Fuel: Necessity Inflation and the Far-Right Vote in Europe, 2004-2021* at the level of detail a referee needs to reproduce a choice: the causal framing (A1), the data by source and year, the construction steps and the coverage (A2), the outcomes (A3), the class measure (A4), the basket and its twins (A5), the *within–between* decomposition and time (A6), the regional exposures and controls (A7), the model equations (A8), the random structure (A9), the estimation settings (A10), the reporting conventions (A11), the election-level identification diagnostics and their results (A12), the robustness programme (A13), the limitations (A14), the results of complementary tests (A15), the references for both languages (A16) and the data and code deposited with this appendix (A17). Section 3.1 of the paper summarises A2, A3, A5, A7 and A10; Sections 3.4 and 3.5 summarise A1, A6 and A12; Table 7a of the paper summarises A12. Equations are numbered consecutively and every symbol is defined where it first appears. The notation is that of Table 1 of the Methods section.

A1. Design and causal framing

The paper estimates the effect of the inflation of a basket of systemically significant prices, accumulated over an electoral cycle, on the probability that a voter chooses a far-right party, relative to the effect of the inflation of everything else, and asks whether that effect differs by class, by regional exposure, over time and across party families. The estimand is a within-country quantity: the difference in the log-odds of a far-right vote between a cycle in which the basket contributed one percentage point more to inflation than is usual for that country and the country's usual cycle, net of what one percentage point of other inflation would do. In the notation of the paper this is δ, the *within* contrast between BW and BNW.

A1.1 Prices as causes. The exposure is a synthetic aggregate in the sense of Kincaid (2009): a construction that is not a simple sum or average of

individual experiences, measured in a unit (index points of a weighted basket) that no single price carries. Kincaid's examples of such aggregates are the general price level and the interest rate, and his argument is that they can stand in causal relations because they can be manipulated, support counterfactuals and enter lawlike regularities; the demand for an individualist mechanism does not apply to vertical mechanisms, which are not intervening variables, and identifying horizontal mechanisms is not necessary to confirm a causal claim, as a clinical trial confirms a drug without its mechanism (Kincaid, 2009). The paper therefore makes an aggregate causal claim and treats the psychological chain (perceived cost of living, grievance, vote) as an open question rather than a premise. The class and exposure heterogeneities describe how the same aggregate is realised in different material positions – tenants, car-dependent households, cold regions, short employment contracts – which is Kincaid's multiple realisability, and they are grounded in the distributional incidence of these prices (Lara Jauregui et al., 2025; Weber et al., 2024), not in attitudes. Kincaid also lists what ordinary regression presupposes – constant causal relevance, uniform and independent effects, effects on mean values, symmetry – and each item has an answer in the design: the time products relax constancy, the moderator products relax uniformity, the basket and the rest enter additively and their difference is the quantity reported, and the Bayesian comparison of rival specifications is the step Kincaid asks for in place of null-hypothesis testing on data that are not a random sample from a defined population.

A1.2 The basket as a shift-share exposure, and WX as a shift-share instrument. The basket index is a Bartik construction – pre-cycle budget shares (the shares) multiplied by component price changes over the cycle (the shifts), summed over six components – used directly as a regressor, that is, as a reduced-form exposure (Borusyak et al., 2025, Table 1, the case in which the regressor is the shift-share index itself; Goldsmith-Pinkham et al., 2020, p. 2589). The same shares of the three commodity components, multiplied by world price changes, give WX, a shift-share instrument in the strict sense: a shift that no national election moves, identical for every election whose window coincides, with BNW^{x} – the inflation of everything outside the three components – as its negative control (A5.5). Two consequences follow from

that literature. First, identification cannot be claimed through the "many exogenous shocks" route: the components are few and correlated (energy, fuels and transport follow oil; food follows commodity prices), and the large swings – the rises of 2007–08, 2011-12 and 2021 and the fall of 2014-16 – are few and common to all countries, so that "there are effectively only a few exogenous comparisons, regardless of how many units are observed" (Borusyak et al., 2025, p. 187). What remains is differential exposure – more and less exposed countries in the same swings, a difference-in-differences with a continuous dose (Goldsmith-Pinkham et al., 2020, pp. 2597-2598) – in which the shares carry the identification and must be unrelated to the changes in the outcome. Second, budget shares for necessities are markers of income (Engel's law) and so "generic" rather than "tailored" shares (Borusyak et al., 2025, p. 188): a country or region with a heavier basket is also poorer. The *within–between* decomposition gives the shares route its correct form – exogeneity with respect to changes, not to levels – and the rest-of-inflation contrast separates basket-specific from generic economic voting. The identifying claim is therefore stated as such: conditional on the country, the election study, the region and the calendar-year intercepts, on the contextual controls and on the rest of inflation measured over the same window, the *within* deviation of basket inflation (and, in the mirrors, of WX) is independent of the unobserved determinants of the far-right vote. The diagnostics of the shift-share literature are implemented at the election level, where the exposure varies (A12): the first stage of the observed commodity inflation on WX; the balance of the weights and of WX against pre-cycle conditions and the previous far-right vote; the Rotemberg weights that say which commodity carries the estimate (Goldsmith-Pinkham et al., 2020, section III); the commodity-by-commodity estimates with an overidentification test (in the spirit of Broxterman & Larson, 2020, who compare versions of the instrument); the lead and pre-trend placebos; and the decomposition of BW into its six component contributions by election.

A1.3 A difference-in-differences with a continuous dose: the four ingredients and their literature. The design is a difference-in-differences with a continuous dose, of the kind that Borusyak and Hull (2023) call an exposure design and Borusyak et al. (2022) a shift-share research design: units are exposed with

different intensities to common shocks, and the outcome is measured on the individuals inside the units. Four ingredients carry the causal reading, and each has its own literature. (i) The *treatment* is a continuous dose: the exposure index of A5. The difference-in-differences with a continuous treatment is the object of Callaway et al. (2024) and of de Chaisemartin and D'Haultfœuille (2020), who show that its parameters are averages of dose-specific effects and that two-way fixed effects weight them unevenly; the Mundlak form, the election-level intercept and the class and moderator products are the design's answer. (ii) The *before–after comparison* is the country against itself across its elections (Bell & Jones, 2015; Fairbrother, 2014; Mundlak, 1978; see A6). (iii) The *identifying assumption* is the parallel-trends assumption in its continuous-dose form: absent the price swings, elections with heavier weights would have followed the same far-right trajectory as elections with lighter ones. It is not testable (Rambachan & Roth, 2023; Roth, 2022), but its observable implications are, and the balance table, the pre-trend and the lead placebo of A12 test them; because world prices are serially correlated, a lead that is not zero may reflect the persistence of the shocks rather than a failure of the assumption (Jaeger et al., 2018), and it is reported as a warning rather than a veto. (iv) The *negative-control exposure* is the rest of inflation (Lipsitch et al., 2010; Shi et al., 2020): it shares the common causes of basket inflation but not its content, and the quantity the paper reports is the difference. Class and the conditions of exposure (PHY, INS, SERV, GDP) are heterogeneity, not identification: they describe among whom and where the same dose weighs more. Because the treatment is assigned to elections and the outcome to respondents, inference follows the level of assignment (Abadie et al., 2023; Bertrand et al., 2004; Moulton, 1990): the hierarchical intercepts of the models (Schmidt-Catran & Fairbrother, 2016) and the country-clustered standard errors of the diagnostics. The exposure-robust inference of Adão et al. (2019), which treats the shocks rather than the units as the sampled objects, is built for many shocks and does not apply to three. The tax split (A13.1) is not part of this chain: it decomposes the shift into a market part and a tax wedge and bears on the interpretation of the effect and on the exogeneity of the shift, not on the parallel-trends assumption about the shares.

A1.4 Where the design sits among the exposure designs on voting. The nearest relatives are the studies that link far-right voting to import competition with a shift-share exposure. Table A1 sets them beside the present design. All four build the exposure from pre-period shares and national sector-level shifts, and all four instrument it with the same shares and a foreign shift (other high-income countries' imports from China), which is the structure of BW and WX; all four define their windows by elections; and three read the far right beside other parties. They differ from the present design in three respects that matter for identification. Their shock is production-side (employment shares × import growth) and the present one consumption-side (budget shares × prices); their identifying variation is across regions within a country-year, so that country × year fixed effects absorb exactly the national over-time variation on which the present design rests, which is why the calendar-year intercept and the placebos weigh more here; and their shocks are hundreds of industries, so that the many-shocks logic is available to them even where they do not invoke it. None of the four uses the shares-versus-shocks vocabulary, the difference-in-differences framing or a negative-control exposure, and none reports balance, Rotemberg weights, overidentification or lead placebos; all four report the first stage in the body of the paper and alternative instruments or windows as robustness. The paper follows that standard in its body and reports the remaining diagnostics here. Two of their practices are worth borrowing: Autor et al. (2020) and Dippel et al. (2022, p. 203) lag the shares of the instrument a further period behind those of the exposure, and Autor et al. control for the initial level of the outcome, which the previous-vote chain of A13.4 does.

Table A1. Four shift-share designs on far-right voting and the present design

Study	Outcome, unit	Shares × shifts	Instrument	Identifying variation	Negative control; diagnostics	Heterogeneity
Autor et al. (2020)	legislator ideology and presidential vote, county × district cells; Pew respondents	2000 industry employment shares of the commuting zone × growth of Chinese import penetration	other high-income countries' imports from China, shares lagged ten years	first differences across commuting zones within one period; Census-division trends	none; competing shocks, timing within the window, initial-level controls	by initial party, race, and the race and gender of the workers hit
Colantone and	ideology summaries and radical-righ	pre-sample NUTS-2 employment shares × Chinese	US imports from China	across regions within country-year	none; alternative instruments,	labour-market status dummie

Study	Outcome, unit	Shares × shifts	Instrument	Identifying variation	Negative control; diagnostics	Heterogeneity
Stanig (2018)	t share, districts; ESS respondents	import growth per worker, two years before the election (eq. 1, p. 940)	(eq. 2, p. 941)	(country × year fixed effects, p. 943)	region-trend controls	s, none significant (p. 949)
Dippel et al. (2022)	party vote shares and turnout, German counties; SOEP respondents	start-of-period county industry employment × German net import growth (eq. 1, p. 202)	eight non-euro high-income countries' trade flows, shares lagged a decade (p. 203)	stacked first differences between elections with period × macro-region effects	negative-control outcomes (other parties); mediation by labour-market change	low-skill manufacturing workers (p. 208)
Malgouyres (2017)	Front National first-round share, cantons	start-of-period canton sector employment × French imports from low-wage countries (eq. 1, p. 7)	Chinese exports to eight non-euro high-income countries (eq. 6, p. 12)	first differences across cantons within département × period	none; bounding of the omitted immigration share	by 1982 immigrant share and by period
This paper	far-right vote (and three other families), respondents; 56 elections	pre-cycle HICP budget weights × price changes over the electoral cycle (BW; A5)	the same weights × world prices of food, energy and fuels (WX)	within country across elections (Mundlak), with country, election, region and year intercepts	the rest of inflation (BNW, BNW^{X}); balance, Rotemberg weights, overidentification, lead and pre-trend placebos (A12)	class × exposure; PHY, INS, SERV, GDP; time; the previous vote

Note. Page and equation references are to the versions listed in A16.

A1.5 What the design does and does not identify. It identifies a within-country, within-period contrast between two parts of the same inflation measure. It does not identify the effect of inflation as such (the *between* terms are confounded by everything stable about a country), nor the effect of a component price on its own (the six components are not separately identified with 56 elections), nor the psychological channel. Threats specific to the basket – energy shocks coinciding with geopolitical events, food shocks with the 2008 crisis, rent inflation with migration-driven housing demand, pre-electoral energy price caps or VAT cuts – are addressed by the immigration-salience and unemployment controls, the calendar-year intercept and the constant-tax twin of the basket, and are discussed in A14; the world-price mirrors and the election-level diagnostics (A12, A13) are the design's own answer to the first two.

A2. Data sources, construction and coverage

A2.0 The dataset as the first task. Section 3.1 of the paper presents the dataset as its first result: none of its sources is new in itself, but none had been joined to the others at the level at which the question lives – the electoral cycle of each country, read in the budget of the household, in the prices of the region and in the vote of the respondent – and the junction is where the work lies. Five sources enter (A2.1 to A2.4): the CSES surveys; Eurostat's harmonised index of consumer prices with its constant-tax twin and its item weights; the Eurobarometer and Eurostat's regional statistics; the party classifications of The PopuList and the Chapel Hill Expert Survey with the cabinet records of ParlGov; and the world commodity prices. Four constructions turn them into a dataset, and A2.6 lists the steps in the order in which they were run: the dating and computation of the exposure for the 78 cycles of the universe (A2.2, A5.3); the reconstruction of the constant-tax series by chaining, which keeps the 20 of the 56 elections that a pure constant-tax basket would lose (A5.4); the recovery of the region of residence and the estimation of the regional indices for the 98 regions of the models (A2.1, A7); and the classification of the vote and of the incumbency (A3, A7.7). An independent verification step recomputes every quantity from the raw downloads before any model is fitted (A10.5), and A17 lists what is deposited with this appendix.

A2.1 Surveys. The individual data are the Comparative Study of Electoral Systems Integrated Module Dataset (CSES IMD) and the autonomous CSES Module 5 files (Comparative Study of Electoral Systems, n.d.). The region of residence of the Module 5 respondents, which the integrated file does not carry, was recovered from the autonomous Module 5 files with a documented crosswalk to the regional categories of the integrated file and to NUTS; the Greek regional categories of 2009 and January 2015 were corrected by place of residence (the districts of Thessaloniki to Central Macedonia, Attica to its own region). The Eurobarometer microdata (GESIS, standard waves 2003-2021) enter the vote models only through the two post-stratified regional estimates described in A7 (INS and IMM).

A2.2 Election universe and sample. The universe is every CSES election study of the twenty-five target countries (Austria, Belgium, Bulgaria, Czechia,

Germany, Denmark, Estonia, Spain, Finland, France, the United Kingdom, Greece, Croatia, Hungary, Ireland, Italy, Lithuania, Latvia, the Netherlands, Poland, Portugal, Romania, Sweden, Slovenia and Slovakia) with an election in 2003-2021 whose cycle window is covered by the monthly HICP series: 78 election studies, with cycle baselines from February 1999 onward (Greece 2012 and January and September 2015 are three cycles). The main vote is the lower-house party-list vote, the lower-house district candidate in the single-member-district systems (Ireland, the United Kingdom, France 2007) and the presidential first round in France 2012 and 2017 and Romania 2009 and 2014; the same rule defines the recalled previous vote. An election enters the models when a far-right party was on the ballot, decided from the party lists; the result is the 56 election studies of 20 countries listed in Table 2 of the Methods section, with elections from November 2004 to October 2021. Each of the 78 cycles was dated to the month of the previous election and of the election studied from the electoral record of each country, and the window of A5.3 was built from those two months; among the 56, five countries contribute one election, three contribute two and twelve contribute three or more (Table 4 of the Methods section). The three main families are estimated on the same 56; the greens on the 39 of them in which a green party received votes (18 countries). The regional models use the respondents whose NUTS region is known: 50,349 respondents in the far right's models (98 regions), of whom 20,000 are drawn into each fit (A10.4); the national version of the GDP moderation uses all respondents of the 56 elections (58,565).

A2.3 Price data. Eurostat (n.d.) HICP monthly indices (series prc_hicp_midx, index 2015 = 100, ECOICOP items down to the four-digit subclasses, February 1999 to September 2021), HICP at constant tax rates (prc_hicp_cind) and HICP item weights (prc_hicp_iw, 1999-2017, the weights of each cycle's baseline year), downloaded through the Eurostat application programming interface. The world price series of the shift-share instrument are the World Bank monthly food price index (the Pink Sheet), Brent crude, the European natural-gas benchmark, Australian coal and an electricity price assembled from each country's pre-cycle generation mix. The constant-tax series exist from December 2002 for the all-items index and, for the basket items, from December 2005 in most countries and from December 2012 in

Czechia, Estonia, Ireland, Portugal, Sweden, Slovakia and the United Kingdom (rents and land transport in France from December 2014).

A2.4 Macro and regional data. Table A2 lists every contextual series, its source (with the Eurostat code where the series is a single Eurostat table), its level and period and its use.

Table A2. Contextual series: source, level, period and use

Quantity	Source and code	Level, period	Use
Unemployment rate 15-74	Eurostat une_rt_a	national, annual, cycle mean	control of the national GDP model
Regional unemployment 15-74	Eurostat lfst_r_lfu3rt (from 1999); successor region, mean of sub-regions, parent region, then national fallback	NUTS 1/2, annual, cycle mean	control of the regional models
Real GDP growth	Eurostat nama_10_gdp (chain-linked volumes, % change), compounded over the months of the cycle	national	control; moderator GDP (H1d)
Energy-poverty index EP	EU-SILC via Eurostat ilc_mdes07 (arrears on utility bills), ilc_mdes01 (cannot keep home warm), ilc_mdho01 (damp housing); mean of z-scores, at least two present	national, annual, cycle mean	control
Tenants' share	Eurostat ilc_lvho02	national	component of PHY
Cars per 1,000 inhabitants; heating degree-day normal	own extraction from Eurostat regional transport and energy statistics; long-run mean of heating degree-days of the region	regional	components of PHY
Services' share of employment	Eurostat nama_10r_3empers (LFS lfst_r_lfe2en2/lfst_r_lfe2en1 as fallback)	regional, structural year before the cycle	component of SERV
Household disposable income per head (PPS)	Eurostat nama_10r_2hhinc (B6N); German gaps before 2012 filled by relative position in the nearest year	regional, year before the cycle	component of SERV
Population density	Eurostat demo_r_d3dens	regional	control
Foreign citizens, % of population 15-64	Eurostat lfst_r_lfsd2pwn	regional	control
Immigration salience IMM	Eurobarometer item "two most important issues facing the country" (immigration), post-stratified with demo_r_pjangroup (population by sex and age) and edat_lfse_04 (education)	election × region	control
Perceived economic insecurity INS	Eurobarometer item on the financial situation of the household in the next twelve months ("worse"), post-stratified as above	election × region	moderator (H1b, H3)
Incumbency of each family	own coding checked against the ParlGov cabinet records; greens from the CSES outgoing-government item where no coding existed	election	control; moderators of Models 5a and 5b
Party families	The PopuList 3.0 (far right) and CHES positions; hand-mapped CSES party codes	party	outcomes

Note. Every contextual control has a cycle version (the mean over the months of the cycle) or a pre-cycle version (the year before the cycle begins), as stated; no pre-cycle value ever uses a year inside the cycle.

A2.5 Periods. Cycle baselines run from February 1999 (the earliest ordinary HICP month in several countries) to 2017; elections from 2004 to 2021; the HICP weights used are those of the baseline year of each cycle.

A2.6 The construction, step by step. The steps below were run in this order, and the code deposited with this appendix (A17) runs them in the same order.

1. Download of the Eurostat series through the application programming interface: prc_hicp_midx (the all-items index and the ECOICOP items down to four digits), prc_hicp_cind and prc_hicp_iw (A2.3); of the world price series (A2.3); and of the regional and national series of Table A2.

2. Dating of the 78 cycles of the universe to the month of the previous election and of the election studied (A2.2), and definition of the window of each cycle (A5.3).

3. Computation of BW and BNW for every cycle from the raw monthly indices with the weights of the baseline year, group by group and country by country, with the route recorded wherever a sub-item route replaces a missing four-digit series (Table A3); decomposition of BW into its six contributions (A5.7).

4. Reconstruction of the constant-tax twins by chaining (A5.4), with the three coverage diagnostics of every election, and computation of the tax wedges.

5. Computation of WX, BW^{x} and BNW^{x} (A5.5), including the household-energy world price assembled from each country's pre-cycle generation mix.

6. Recovery of the region of residence of the Module 5 respondents through the documented crosswalk, correction of the Greek regional categories of 2009 and January 2015, and assignment of one NUTS level per country (A2.1).

7. Estimation of INS and IMM by multilevel regression and post-stratification from the Eurobarometer waves linked to each cycle

(A7.4, A7.6); construction of PHY, SERV and EP from the regional and national series, with the documented fallbacks (A7.2, A7.3, A7.5).

8. Mapping of every CSES party code to a family (A3.2), classification of the previous vote (A3.3), coding of the incumbency of each family checked against the ParlGov records (A7.7), and application of the far-right-offer rule, which selects the 56 elections (A3.4).

9. Derivation of the three-class ESeC measure from the two-digit ISCO and the employment-status items, in tiers recorded in a provenance flag (A4.2), and the five completions of the class variable (A10.1).

10. *Within–between* decomposition of every exposure and double demeaning of the time products on the rows of each model (A6); standardisation of the moderators and controls on the same rows (A7).

11. Verification: recomputation of every quantity from the raw downloads, check of the identities and the integrity checks (A10.5); stratified subsample and representativeness table for every fit (A10.4).

12. Estimation (A10), election-level identification diagnostics (A12) and complementary tests (A15).

A3. Outcomes and party families

A3.1 Outcomes. Each vote model has a binary outcome built from the recalled vote in the main election (A2.2): 1 when the party voted for belongs to the family and 0 when the vote went to a party of any other family (including the residual "other"). The population of every family model is the set of voters: respondents who report abstention are missing in all four outcomes. A respondent can belong to at most one family. A study in which the classifier found no voter in a named family is treated as a classification failure and all its votes are set to missing; a study with no voter of a given family is excluded from that family's model only.

A3.2 Classification. CSES party codes (seven digits: the UN M49 polity code and a party serial) are mapped by hand into five families – far right, socialist left (social democrats, socialists and the radical left), traditional right

(conservatives, Christian democrats, confessional parties and liberals), greens and other – with the codes verified against the respondent's polity and with the leading zero of the Austrian and Belgian codes restored (a silent source of misclassification in numeric storage). The far-right family follows The PopuList 3.0 (Rooduijn et al., 2024), which classifies European parties as populist, far left, far right and Eurosceptic by expert-informed qualitative comparative classification. The Chapel Hill Expert Survey (Rovny et al., 2025; the 2024 survey and its trend file) is used in two ways: its left–right, GAL–TAN and party-family scores confirm, or rethink at the margin, the PopuList's assignment of parties to the radical right and the extreme right; and they define, per country and year, each party classified as green, socialist and traditional right.

A3.3 Previous-vote populations. The recalled vote at the previous election, classified with the same lists and the same election-type rule, defines the populations of Models 6a–6d: last time's traditional-right voters, with the far right, the socialist left and the greens as destinations (6a–6c), and last time's socialist voters, with the far right as destination (6d). These populations require the previous vote to be known and classified and keep the election × region cells of the model of the destination family; they are estimated on all their respondents (17,126 for 6a and 6b, 14,036 for 6c, 14,634 for 6d), on 50, 50, 35 and 51 elections respectively.

A3.4 Far-right offer. Every model keeps only the elections in which a far-right party was on the ballot. The rule is per election, not per country: a country enters with the elections in which its far right was on offer, and leaves with the others. Where there was no far-right offer, the question whether basket inflation pulls voters toward the far right cannot be asked, and the comparison families are kept on the same elections so that the multiverse compares families, not samples.

A4. Class: the European Socio-economic Classification in three classes

A4.1 Concept. The European Socio-economic Classification (ESeC) is the Eurostat-commissioned harmonised version of the Erikson–Goldthorpe schema, built on employment relations: employers, the self-employed and employees are distinguished, and employees are divided by how their work is

regulated – the service relationship (a long-term, diffuse exchange with prospective rewards and continuity of employment), the labour contract ("a relatively short-term and specific exchange between employers and employees of money (a wage) for effort") and mixed forms (Rose et al., 2010, pp. 11-14). It is "a pure class measure: 'one concept, one measure'", uncontaminated by income or education (p. 7). Its construct validity was judged on the stability of income and employment and on unemployment risk (pp. 26, 34-36), which is why it is the right measure for an inflation shock: the working class is, by construction, the group with the least contractual buffer against a loss of real income, not merely the lowest-income group. Smallenbroek et al. (2024) validate ESeC and EGP across 31 European countries (EWCS 2010 and 2015): the two schemes are interchangeable, the three-level ordering holds in every country, only 7-15% of the variance in employment relations lies between countries, and the results are unchanged with ISCO-88 or ISCO-08 and without supervisory information (pp. 1428-1441). They also show that routine workers (ESeC 9) have the shortest time horizons and the fewest permanent contracts, and that lower professionals resemble the intermediate classes; the three-class version is therefore an omnibus measure.

A4.2 Derivation in the CSES. The CSES IMD gives occupation at two ISCO digits only (ISCO-88 in modules 1-3, ISCO-08 in modules 4-5), no supervisory status and no establishment size. ESeC is therefore derived by the reduced-information method the ESeC documentation provides for such data, in tiers recorded in a provenance flag: tier 1, two-digit ISCO plus the socio-economic status item (employer, self-employed, farmer, white-collar, worker) with the agricultural and self-employment adjustments of the ESeC matrix; tier 2, two-digit ISCO alone (the employee baseline); tier 3, socio-economic status alone (white collar to the intermediate class, worker to the routine class, farmer to self-employed in agriculture, self-employed to small employer); tier 4, association membership or sector only; tier 5, the never-worked and long-term unemployed (ESeC 10). The ten classes collapse into three without crossing a form of employment regulation (Rose et al., 2010, Table 1.2): salariat = ESeC 1-2, intermediate = 3-6, working class = 7-9, with ESeC 10 assigned to the working class. The two-digit ceiling blurs

distinctions that are mostly internal to a collapsed band; the salariat–working boundary is carried by the ISCO major group. The economically inactive (retired, unemployed, disabled) are classified by their last occupation where the CSES provides it. The reference category is the working class.

A4.3 Imputation. Where an election study did not field the occupation battery at all (block-wise missingness at the study level) or an individual lacks every input, class is imputed by a donor-based procedure within cells (hot deck; van Buuren, 2018, §3.4), in five numbered steps. (1) Respondents are grouped into cells by country × education × age band × sex × place of residence. (2) For a respondent with a missing class, the finest cell with at least 20 donors is selected, falling back in order to country × education × age band, country × education, country and the pooled marginal; the level used is recorded. (3) A class is drawn from the observed distribution of the three classes among the donors of that cell. (4) The draw is repeated five times, and between-imputation variability is introduced by a Bayesian bootstrap – a Dirichlet reweighting of the donor counts drawn independently for each of the five imputations – so that Rubin's rules apply. (5) The vote is deliberately excluded from the imputation model, so that the class–vote association cannot be manufactured for rows without occupational signal; place of residence is imputed in the same way where missing, and every imputed row is flagged. The five completions differ only in class and place of residence; the models are fitted on all five and the posteriors are pooled (A10.1).

A5. The basket of systemically significant prices

A5.1 Concept. Hockett and Omarova (2016) coined "systemically important prices and indices" for prices with market-wide importance because they are ubiquitous inputs to production, ubiquitous assets or benchmarks for other prices – energy and fuels, foodstuffs, labour, interest rates, the CPI itself – and argued that such prices are "regulatorily salient" and already the object of public intervention (pp. 1-9). Weber et al. (2024) made the notion operational: a price is systemically significant when a shock to it has a large total "inflation impact" on the consumer price index, and that impact "depends on the size of the price shock, the extent to which the shocked industry's output is used as direct and indirect inputs throughout the

economy and the weights of the affected industries in consumers' baskets" (p. 304). For the United States the eight sectors that dominate under every scenario are petroleum and coal products, oil and gas extraction, utilities, chemicals, farms, food and beverages, housing and wholesale trade (p. 297); for Germany, with the input–output table bridged to the COICOP-based CPI, they are oil and gas, electricity, heating and cooling, coke and petroleum products, food, beverages and tobacco, agriculture, real estate services, land transport and warehousing, and "Land Transport is rendered systemically significant across all three channels" (Weber et al., 2026, pp. 1-5, 12). Systemic significance is ordinal and historical, not binary and static (Weber et al., 2024, pp. 301, 305), and the latent ranking from pre-2019 volatility "provide[s] a reliable guide to identifying points of vulnerability" through the pandemic and the energy crisis (Weber et al., 2026, p. 7), which justifies fixing the basket ex ante for all cycles. Lara Jauregui et al. (2025) show that the same sectors are systemically significant for inequality: the bottom half of the income distribution spends about twice the share of the top on food and fuels, so that these shocks hit "the purchasing power of the income of the bottom twice as hard as that of the top" (pp. 18-20), and a joint 2022 shock to these sectors raises the Gini by about one year of neoliberal-era growth (p. 31). This is the structural ground of the class hypotheses.

A5.2 The six HICP groups. Table A3 gives each component, its ECOICOP code, the series actually used (the route) and the ground for its inclusion.

Table A3. The six HICP groups: codes, series used and grounds

Component	ECOICOP	Series used (route)	Ground
Food	CP01 (food and non-alcoholic beverages)	CP01	Weber et al. (2024): food, farms; Weber et al. (2026); inequality-significant (Lara Jauregui et al., 2025)
Actual rents	CP041	CP041	housing weight channel (Weber et al., 2024, p. 309: a purely direct effect, 15.3% of the US CPI); real estate services in Germany; actual rents are the tenants' cash outlay the inequality paper recommends (p. 20)
Water and other services for the dwelling	CP044	CP044, or CP0441–CP0444 where CP044 is missing	part of the utilities sector; administered prices with low volatility; kept for completeness of the housing-services block
Electricity, gas and other fuels	CP045	CP045, or CP0451–CP0455	utilities and heating fuels (both lists); the largest realised impacts in 2022

Component	ECOICOP	Series used (route)	Ground
Fuels and lubricants for personal transport	CP0722	CP0722	petroleum and coal products, the most systemically significant sector in both countries
Land passenger transport	CP0731 + CP0732 + CP0735 (rail, road, combined)	the three items, CP073 as fallback	land transport, systemically significant on all three channels in Germany (Weber et al., 2026, p. 5); fuel pass-through

Note. The six weights together cover of the order of a third of the HICP in the richer countries and more in the poorer ones, where food weighs most. The route chosen for each group and country is recorded in the supplement, and every basket is recomputed from the raw downloads by an independent verification step (A10.5).

A5.3 *Window, weights and formula.* For an election e of country c, the cycle window runs from the month before the previous election (the baseline, b) to the month before election e (the endpoint); for an election in September 2008 after an election in October 2006 the window is September 2006 to August 2008. The weights are the HICP item weights of the baseline year t_0 (the year in which the cycle begins), expressed as shares of the all-items index (Eurostat publishes them in parts per thousand). The index is

$$\mathrm{BW}_{ce} = \sum_{k \in W} w_{k,c,t_0} \; 100 \, \ln\!\left(\frac{P_{k,c,e}}{P_{k,c,b}}\right) \tag{1}$$

$$\mathrm{BNW}_{ce} = 100 \, \ln\!\left(\frac{P_{00,c,e}}{P_{00,c,b}}\right) - \mathrm{BW}_{ce} \tag{2}$$

where W is the set of the six groups of Table A3, w is the weight of group k in country c in the baseline year t_0, P_k is the monthly price index of group k, P_{00} the all-items index, and b and e the baseline and endpoint months. BW is the contribution of the six groups to cumulative log inflation over the cycle, in percentage points; BNW is the contribution of everything else; their sum is total inflation, checked line by line. Fixing the weights at t_0 makes BW the income increase a household would need to afford the start-of-cycle basket of these goods at end-of-cycle prices (the fixed-weight reading in Weber et al., 2026, p. 10, n. 16), and it removes substitution within the cycle from the exposure. The window ends before the vote, so no post-election price enters.

On the respondent rows of Model 1 of the far right, the within-country standard deviation of BW is 2.9 points and that of BNW 1.8 points; across the 56 elections, with one observation each, that of BW is 4.7 points.

A5.4 The constant-tax twins, the market parts and the tax wedges. Eurostat's HICP at constant tax rates holds the rates of VAT and excise duties at their level in a reference month and recomputes each item's index as if they had not changed; the difference between the ordinary and the constant-tax index is read as the contribution of indirect-tax changes to inflation under full and immediate pass-through (European Central Bank, 2020). Because the item series start in December 2005 or December 2012 (A2.3), a basket computed only from the constant-tax series would lose 20 of the 56 elections. The chained definition computes, for each country × item, the monthly change from the constant-tax index when it has that month and the previous one, and from the ordinary index otherwise:

$$\Delta^{c}_{k,c,m} = \begin{cases} 100\,\ln\!\left(P^{c}_{k,c,m}/P^{c}_{k,c,m-1}\right) & \text{if } P^{c}_{k,c,m} \text{ and } P^{c}_{k,c,m-1} \text{ exist} \\ 100\,\ln\!\left(P_{k,c,m}/P_{k,c,m-1}\right) & \text{otherwise} \end{cases} \tag{3}$$

where P^c is the constant-tax index and m a month of the window. The change of an item over the window is the sum of its monthly changes, so that where the constant-tax series covers the whole window the result equals the pure constant-tax basket exactly; BW^{c} is then (1) with the summed chained changes in place of the log change, and BNW^{c} is (2) built on the constant-tax all-items change, which takes the constant-tax value only in months where the items carried by the constant-tax index weigh more than half of the basket (the majority rule), so that both sides of the decomposition sit on the same index whenever the basket does. The tax wedges are

$$\mathrm{BW}^{t}_{ce} = \mathrm{BW}_{ce} - \mathrm{BW}^{c}_{ce}, \qquad \mathrm{BNW}^{t}_{ce} = \mathrm{BNW}_{ce} - \mathrm{BNW}^{c}_{ce} \tag{4}$$

the part of each basket's inflation that the mechanical pass-through of tax changes would have produced. Three coverage diagnostics accompany every election: the weighted fraction of monthly item changes taken from the ordinary index, the number of months of the all-items change taken from it, and the per-item detail; the first, standardised, is the coverage control of Model 4b (A8.4). The wedge assumes, as Eurostat's index does, full and immediate pass-through; actual incidence is lower and uneven – 57 and 77 per cent of the tax change borne by consumers in two French VAT reforms (Carbonnier, 2007), close to full for the standard VAT rate but much lower for

reduced rates (Benedek et al., 2020), larger for increases than for cuts (Benzarti et al., 2020), and complete on average for fuel excises (Marion & Muehlegger, 2011) – so, change by change, the wedge overstates the price effect of a tax change, and over a cycle that mixes rises and cuts the net wedge can err in either direction. The comparison between the constant-tax and the nominal Model 1 (same rows, same respondents) measures the role of indirect taxation only in the elections where the coverage share is small, and the paper reports the comparison with that caveat.

A5.5 The World-price Basket (WX) and its contrast. For the three commodity components the window change of the world price replaces the domestic change:

$$\mathrm{WX}_{ce} = \sum_{k \in \{01,\,045,\,0722\}} w_{k,c,t_0}\; 100\,\ln\!\left(\frac{P^{*}_{k,e}}{P^{*}_{k,b}}\right) \tag{5}$$

$$\begin{aligned} \mathrm{BW}^{x}_{ce} &= \sum_{k \in \{01,\,045,\,0722\}} w_{k,c,t_0}\; 100\,\ln\!\left(\frac{P_{k,c,e}}{P_{k,c,b}}\right), \\ \mathrm{BNW}^{x}_{ce} &= 100\,\ln\!\left(\frac{P_{00,c,e}}{P_{00,c,b}}\right) - \mathrm{BW}^{x}_{ce} \end{aligned} \tag{6}$$

where P* is the World Bank food price index for CP01, Brent for CP0722 and, for CP045, a household-energy price assembled from European gas, Australian coal and an electricity price weighted by the country's pre-cycle generation mix; the weights and the window are those of BW, and the world series are the same for every country. WX is national, one value per election, identical for every election with the same window; BW^{x}, the commodity core of BW at domestic prices, is what the first stage of A12 regresses on WX; BNW^{x}, the inflation outside the three components, is the negative control of WX. The three parts of WX (food, household energy, motor fuels) are kept so that the Rotemberg weights and the commodity-by-commodity estimates of A12 can be computed. Across the 56 elections the within-country standard deviation of WX is 8.4 points, that of BW^{x} 4.1 points, and their within-country correlation 0.61.

A5.6 The mirrors. Each hypothesis model has a world-price mirror: the original with WX in place of BW and BNW^{x} in place of BNW in every term –

the class products, the moderator products, the time products – and nothing else changed: the formula, the controls, the random effects, the priors (normal(0, 0.25) on every term with WX or BNW^{x}), the sampler and the election × region units. The mirrors of Model 1 and Model 3 keep the same 20,000 respondents as their originals; the mirrors of Models 2a–2d are fitted on 10,000 respondents drawn from the original's population by the same rule. A mirror keeps exactly the units of its original and needs the basket pair on its rows too, so it never has a row its original could not have. The twenty-four mirrors are Models 1^{x}, 2a^{x}, 2b^{x}, 2c^{x}, 2d^{x} and 3^{x} for the four families. Their reading against the originals is in A11.5.

A5.7 The six-group decomposition. The contribution of each of the six groups to BW is recomputed by election from the raw downloads and checked to add up to BW; the share of the within-country variation of BW that each group carries, and how much of each family's election-level slope runs through each group, are reported in A12.7.

A5.8 What the basket is not. It is a consumer-side index of final-consumption groups, not the producer-side sector shock of the input–output model; it captures the direct inflation impact of the significant sectors and the part of their propagation that lands inside the basket (energy into food, for instance), while upstream sectors without a consumer counterpart (oil and gas extraction, chemicals, wholesale trade) appear only through their downstream items. The rest of inflation, BNW, is not causally inert: by Weber et al.'s (2024, p. 299) own logic, "any one's price is always someone else's cost", so BNW contains second-round effects of basket shocks. It is a contrast exposure, and the paper's claim is that the basket matters more, not that the rest does not matter (A13.2).

A6. Within and between countries, and time

A6.1 The decomposition. Every exposure x (BW, BNW and their constant-tax twins and wedges) enters the models split into two parts computed on the rows of each model: first x is centred on its grand mean over those rows; the *between* part is the mean of the centred x in the respondent's country; the *within* part is the centred x minus that country mean, so that it averages zero inside each country:

$$x_c^b = \frac{1}{n_c}\sum_{i \in c} \tilde{x}_i, \qquad x_{ce}^w = \tilde{x}_{ce} - x_c^b, \qquad \tilde{x} = x - \bar{x} \tag{7}$$

where x̃ is the grand-mean-centred exposure, n_c the number of rows of country c and the sum runs over the rows of the model. The sum of the two parts is the centred x (checked). This is Mundlak's (1978) device – the auxiliary regression of the country effect on the country means of the regressors, eqs. (2.3)–(2.4) – in the *within–between* form of Bell and Jones (2015, eq. 12) and Bell et al. (2019, eq. 1):

$$\begin{aligned}\operatorname{logit}\Pr(y_{icer}=1) = \alpha + \beta_{\mathrm{BW}}^w \,\mathrm{BW}_{ce}^w + \beta_{\mathrm{BW}}^b \,\mathrm{BW}_c^b + \beta_{\mathrm{BNW}}^w \,\mathrm{BNW}_{ce}^w + \beta_{\mathrm{BNW}}^b \,\mathrm{BNW}_c^b \\ + \ldots + u_c + u_{ce} + u_r + u_t\end{aligned} \tag{8}$$

where y is the vote of respondent i in country c, election e and region r, the four β are the *within* and *between* coefficients of the two baskets, the ellipsis stands for the rest of the fixed part (A8) and u_c, u_ce, u_r and u_t are the random intercepts of the country, the election study, the region and the calendar year t (A9). Once the country means are in the model, the *within* coefficient is what a country-fixed-effects estimator would target (Mundlak, 1978, eq. 3.3: "there is only one estimator"), and the *between* coefficient is the between effect proper, equal to the within effect plus Mundlak's contextual effect (Bell et al., 2019, p. 1056). Nothing is gained by a fixed-versus-random debate or by a Hausman test, which only asks whether the two coefficients differ (Bell & Jones, 2015, p. 144). The reported quantity is the *within* contrast

$$\delta = \beta_{\mathrm{BW}}^w - \beta_{\mathrm{BNW}}^w \tag{9}$$

The *between* coefficients are reported but not read as effects: with twenty countries they rest on a cross-section confounded by everything stable about a country (Gelman, as cited in Fairbrother, 2014, p. 121: "it is a big leap to interpret differences between countries as a potential effect of a change within a country"), and the means are themselves measured from one to five elections (Bell & Jones, 2015, n. 14).

A6.2 How to read the two parts. The *within* part compares each country with itself: a cycle in which the basket contributed more than the country's usual contribution. This is the "country facing a more inflationary cycle than

usual" of the paper. The *between* part compares countries: whether countries whose cycles are, on average, more inflationary in these prices vote differently – a descriptive quantity that absorbs the country-level confounding so that the *within* part does not carry it. Because the means are computed over the rows of each model, the *within* deviations of two models with different rows differ slightly; the rule is the same in all of them, and the time models and the moderation models of the same family share rows and respondents. What countries with one, two and three or more elections contribute to each block is stated in Table 4 of the Methods section: the *within* coefficients are identified by the fifteen countries with at least two elections, the trend of the basket effect by the twelve with at least three, and the *between* coefficients by one observation per country; Fairbrother's (2014, pp. 129-132) simulations show that this is a question of power, not of bias.

A6.3 Time. The election year (the year of the election month), in decades from the mean of the model's rows, is split in the same way: τ^b is the country mean, τ^w the deviation of the election from it (zero in a country with one election). The time models add class × τ^w (does the working class move toward the far right faster than the salariat within a country?), τ^b, and the products of the *within* basket with *within* time, interacted with class. These products are double-demeaned:

$$(\mathrm{BW}\,\tau)^{ww}_{ce} = \mathrm{BW}^{w}_{ce}\,\tau^{w}_{ce} - \frac{1}{n_c}\sum_{i\in c}\mathrm{BW}^{w}_{ce}\,\tau^{w}_{ce} \tag{10}$$

and likewise for BNW: the *within* basket is multiplied by the *within* time and the product is centred again within the country, so that only within-country variation identifies the change of the effect (Giesselmann & Schmidt-Catran, 2022, eqs. 12-13). A product of two demeaned variables is not a within quantity by itself, because its country mean is not zero unless the variables are uncorrelated (p. 1107); omitting the second centring attenuates the estimate. The cost is efficiency – the double-demeaned estimator discards most of the interaction's variance and its standard errors are routinely two to three times larger (p. 1111) – and the three-election rule follows: the term is set to exactly zero in countries with fewer than three elections among the rows of the model, which is the identity of Table 4, not a modelling choice. With

twelve countries above that threshold, the posterior of these terms stays close to their prior, normal(0, 0.25), and a wide interval for H2 or H3 is weak identification, not evidence against them. The calendar-year random intercept and the *within*-time terms together play the role of the time control that Fairbrother (2014, p. 124) requires against "simultaneous but unrelated time trends" in the exposure and the outcome.

A7. Regional exposure, moderators and contextual controls

A7.1 Three logics of exposure. The basket is national; what varies across regions within a country is the intensity with which the same price changes reach households and the conditions under which they are read. Three regional indices capture three facets, deliberately kept apart: physical dependence (how much of the shock arrives), the service configuration (how the regional economy is placed with respect to the basket's goods) and perceived insecurity (the self-reported climate in which the shock is read). Each is the mean of standardised components and is standardised again on the rows of each model, so that its products with the basket are read per standard deviation.

A7.2 PHY, the physical dependence index. PHY is the mean of the available z-scores (at least two of three) of car dependence (cars per thousand inhabitants of the region), the long-run normal of heating degree-days of the region (the climatic normal, not the cycle value, so that it is exposure and not shock) and the share of tenants (Eurostat ilc_lvho02, national). PHY is a control in every model and the moderator of Model 2a (H1a). Its content is specific to the basket – fuels, heating, rents – so it should amplify BW and not BNW; that asymmetry is the strongest test the design offers, because it speaks against explanations through inflation in general or through the business cycle. Physical dependence is not fragility: a region with more cars and more purchased heating may be a region with more resources, so PHY reads how much of the shock arrives, not how much it hurts.

A7.3 SERV, the service configuration index. SERV is the standardised mean of two z-scores, services and income. Services is the share of employment outside agriculture, industry and construction – one hundred times one minus the share of NACE sections A, B to E and F in total employment

(Eurostat nama_10r_3empers, with the LFS series lfst_r_lfe2en2 and lfst_r_lfe2en1 as fallback) – and income is household net disposable income per head in purchasing-power standards (nama_10r_2hhinc, B6N), both in the structural year before the cycle. The German income gaps before 2012 are filled by the area's relative position in the nearest year. SERV is not a control; it enters Model 2c with its main effect and its four products with the basket. Because income enters with a positive sign, +1 SD of SERV is a more service-based and comparatively more affluent region; since most consumer services other than rents, dwelling services and land transport are priced outside the basket, H1c reads the product with BW beside the product with BNW. SERV captures the part of the regional economy that is less hit, or not hit, by BW, whereas PHY captures an affluence correlated with dependence on its goods.

A7.4 INS, the perceived economic insecurity index. INS is the share of Eurobarometer respondents who expect the financial situation of their household to worsen in the next twelve months (1 = worse, 0 = better or the same, "don't know" excluded), estimated by multilevel regression and post-stratification (MrP) exactly as the regional immigration salience, in four steps: (1) a multilevel logistic regression of the item on sex, age band and education with random intercepts for country × year, region and region × year; (2) prediction for every cell of the region's population by sex and age (Eurostat demo_r_pjangroup) and education (edat_lfse_04); (3) post-stratification of the cell predictions by the cell counts; (4) averaging over the interviews linked to the election up to the election month, with weights proportional to the months of each year in the cycle. Waves without the item (EB 59.1, 83.1, 91.2) contribute no interviews. INS is a moderator only: with its main effect and the four products in Model 2b (H1b), and with its own trend and its products with the double-centred basket × time terms in Model 3 (H3); it is not a control of any model and does not define the sample, because as an expectation it responds to the cycle's own inflation (Ivlevs, 2014, p. S137, on the adaptive formation of forward-looking insecurity). The construct is the perceived side of economic insecurity (Hacker et al., 2013, 2014).

A7.5 EP and GDP growth (national). The energy-poverty index EP is the mean of the z-scores (at least two of three) of the three EU-SILC indicators

with which Thomson and Snell (2013) quantify fuel poverty across the European Union: arrears on utility bills (ilc_mdes07), inability to keep the home adequately warm (ilc_mdes01) and a leaking roof, damp walls or rot (ilc_mdho01). It is a control in every model (the national value in the regional models, since there is no regional series), used to clean extreme national situations of energy poverty; it is not a moderator. Real GDP growth over the cycle (nama_10_gdp, annual percentage changes of chain-linked volumes compounded over the months of the cycle) is a control in every model and the moderator of Model 2d (H1d), the one national model: it varies only between elections and responds to the price shock itself, so its moderation is identified from the elections, not from the respondents, and is read as a conditional association.

A7.6 Contextual controls. The regional models carry eight contextual controls, chosen because each is a documented correlate of the far-right vote that could also move with the cycle's prices: EP (national), regional unemployment, IMM, national GDP growth, population density, the share of foreign citizens, PHY and the family's own incumbency. The national GDP model carries the national versions of the same set: EP, national unemployment, national immigration salience, GDP growth, PHY (national value) and incumbency. Each control is standardised once (mean 0, SD 1) on the CSES rows that enter the models. Regional unemployment follows a documented fallback order (own region; successor region after a NUTS revision; mean of sub-regions; parent region; national value, flagged). Regional immigration salience is the MrP estimate of the share naming immigration among the two most important issues facing the country, estimated as in A7.4; national immigration salience is the weighted share by wave, averaged over the waves of the cycle up to the election month. Both are measured during the cycle and are therefore partly post-treatment – inflation can raise the salience of other issues – which makes the control conservative with respect to the basket (Halikiopoulou & Vlandas, 2020; Ivarsflaten, 2008, on immigration as the far right's crucial predictor). Median age and tertiary education of the region are computed but excluded from all models; they remain inside the MrP as post-stratification cells.

A7.7 Incumbency. The incumbency of the far right, the socialist left and the traditional right equals 1 when parties of the family held ministries in the cabinet in office on election day (a caretaker cabinet counts by the last partisan one), from the author's coding checked against the ParlGov cabinet records (Döring & Manow, n.d.; 12 studies coded from the records, 6 cells corrected); the greens' incumbency uses the CSES outgoing-government item where no coding existed (at least 10% and at least three green voters of the study saying their party was in government), checked against the records. Each family model controls for its own incumbency; the previous-vote models for the incumbency of the destination family. In Models 5a and 5b the traditional right's own incumbency and the socialists' incumbency moderate the basket.

A8. Model specifications and the multiverse

A8.1 The building blocks. All vote models are Bernoulli (logit) multilevel regressions sharing one mould. The fixed part of Model 1, for respondent i in country c, election e and region r, is

$$\begin{aligned}\eta_{icer} = \alpha + \sum_{x\in\{\mathrm{BW,BNW}\}} \Big[& \beta_x^w x_{ce}^w + \beta_x^b x_c^b + \sum_k \left(\gamma_{xk}^w x_{ce}^w + \gamma_{xk}^b x_c^b\right) C_{ik} \\ & + \sum_k \theta_{xk} \left(x\,\tau\right)_{ce}^{ww} C_{ik} + \theta_x \left(x\,\tau\right)_{ce}^{ww} \Big] + \sum_k \left(\lambda_k C_{ik} + \lambda_k^\tau C_{ik}\,\tau_{ce}^w\right) \\ & + \lambda^w \tau_{ce}^w + \lambda^b \tau_c^b + \mathbf{z}_i'\boldsymbol{\phi} + \mathbf{m}_{ce(r)}'\boldsymbol{\psi} + \omega\,\mathrm{INC}_{ce}\end{aligned} \tag{11}$$

where η is the log-odds of a vote for the family, C_ik are the class indicators (intermediate, salariat; working class as reference), (xτ)^ww the double-centred basket × time products of (10), z_i the individual block (sex, centred age and its square, education, place of residence), m the contextual controls of A7.6 (standardised) and INC the incumbency of the family; the random part is (13) of A9. The other models change one block of (11), as Table 5 of the Methods section states and as the following paragraphs specify.

A8.2 The moderation models (Models 2a–2d). Model 1 without the time terms, plus the four basket terms multiplied by one moderator M (PHY, INS, SERV or GDP), always in pairs so that each product exists for the basket and

for the rest of inflation, and the moderator's main effect where it is not already a control:

$$\ldots + \sum_{x \in \{\mathrm{BW},\mathrm{BNW}\}} \left(\kappa_x^w \, x_{ce}^w M_{ce(r)} + \kappa_x^b \, x_c^b M_{ce(r)}\right) + \mu \, M_{ce(r)} \tag{12}$$

where M is the standardised moderator of the election × region cell (the election, for GDP). The class products of (11) are kept beside the moderator products. The moderation of the contrast is κ̂w_BW − κ̂w_BNW, and the contrast at M = ±1 is δ ± (κ̂w_BW − κ̂w_BNW). Model 2d is estimated nationally: with national controls and without the region intercept.

A8.3 The insecurity-over-time model (Model 3). Model 1 without the class products of the basket, plus INS, the four basket terms × INS, INS × τ̂w and the double-centred basket × time products × INS; class is kept as an individual control. The reported quantities are the change per decade of δ at INS = −1, 0 and +1 and the change per decade of the moderation by INS.

A8.4 The tax models (Models 4a and 4b). Model 4a is (11) with BW^c and BNW^c in place of BW and BNW in every term, including the time products. Model 4b is Model 4a plus the tax wedges BW^t and BNW^t, each *within* and *between* and multiplied by class, without time terms of their own, under the same prior as every basket term, plus the coverage control (the standardised share of the cycle's monthly changes taken from the ordinary index, A5.4), so that an election whose wedge is unmeasured is not read, in level, as one without tax changes, although its zero wedge still enters the slope of the wedge and tends to attenuate it.

A8.5 The incumbency models (Models 5a and 5b). The form of Model 2a for the traditional right with the four basket terms × the traditional right's own incumbency (5a; already a control, so no main effect is added) or × the socialists' incumbency (5b; with its main effect). The reported quantity is δ with the family in opposition and in government.

A8.6 The previous-vote populations and the chain (Models 6 and 7). Models 6a–6d are Model 1 of the destination family, estimated on the population of last time's voters of the origin family (A3.3). Model 7a is Model 1 and Model 7b is Model 2a of the far right with two centred indicators – far right last time;

previous vote unknown (not asked, not known or not classified) – against "not far right last time", and their products with the four exposure terms, on exactly the original rows and the same respondents (an unknown previous vote is a category, so no election is lost); because the indicators are centred, the original's contrasts become share-weighted averages over the previous-vote groups, and the new rows are the persistence of the vote, δ among last time's far-right voters (retention), among the others (conversion) and among the unknown, and the retention − conversion difference. Model 7c is Model 1 among the voters who did not vote far right last time, bound to the election × region cells of the far right's Model 1 (20,000 of 41,232 respondents, 51 elections). The three run only when the gate of A13.4 passes.

A8.7 Hypotheses as contrasts. For a model with coefficients on the four basket terms, their class products and (where present) their moderator products, the reported quantities are functions of the posterior draws: the *within* contrast δ for the reference class (working), for each class (adding the class products), averaged over classes, and per standard deviation of each exposure on the rows used; the *between* contrast (reported, not causal); the moderation κ^w_BW − κ^w_BNW and δ at the moderator one standard deviation below and above its mean; δ with the family in opposition and in government; in the time models, the change of δ per decade for each class and the working − salariat difference of that change; in Model 3, the change per decade of the moderation by INS and δ at INS −1 and +1 SD five years before and after the country's mean election year; and, in Model 4b, the tax wedge of the basket alone, against its market part and against the tax wedge of the rest of inflation. The ±1 SD evaluation follows Hainmueller et al. (2019): a linear interaction is a statement that the effect changes at a constant rate across the moderator, and the contrast at two typical values is the quantity that statement licenses.

A8.8 The multiverse. The same specification is estimated for the far right, the socialist left, the traditional right and the greens on the same elections (the greens on the subset where they received votes) and with the same 20,000 respondents per family across variants. This is a multiverse analysis in the sense of Steegen et al. (2016): the alternative outcomes are the reasonable alternative constructions of the dependent variable, and the result is reported

for all of them rather than for the one that confirms the hypothesis. Here the alternatives are not arbitrary: the three comparison families are the destinations that the same inflation could plausibly have favoured (the economic-voting alternative is any opposition family; the class alternative is the socialist left; the policy alternative is the greens), and their boundaries are fixed by an external classification (The PopuList, the CHES) rather than by the analyst. H1–H3 are therefore reported as the far-right row of a four-family table, and H4 as a pattern across the rows. The far right's δ from the specifications of the paper – Model 1 at nominal prices, at constant taxes and the market part of the tax split, the three regional moderation models and the national one at the moderator mean, and Model 3 – is also tabulated together with its intervals and posterior sign probabilities, in the manner of Simonsohn et al. (2020): each specification is a justified alternative (A5–A7), each is expected to be statistically valid (the same likelihood, priors and convergence checks), no two are redundant (each changes one block: basket, moderator, time), and the results are comparable because every regional specification is fitted on a sample drawn by the same rule from the same eligible rows. Because every specification is reported with its full posterior and none is promoted as the result, the comparison protects against the significance filter that Gelman and Carlin (2014, pp. 646-649) describe; the same protection fails if one specification is singled out after seeing the others.

A9. The random part: a cross-classified structure

The random part of every regional vote model is

$$u_c \sim N(0, \sigma_c^2), \quad u_{ce} \sim N(0, \sigma_e^2), \quad u_r \sim N(0, \sigma_r^2), \quad u_t \sim N(0, \sigma_t^2) \tag{13}$$

for the country c, the election study ce, the NUTS region r and the calendar year t of the interview, independent of one another, where σ^2 are the variances the model estimates; the national GDP model omits the region. The structure is not a strict hierarchy. Respondents are nested in election studies, which are cross-classified by country and by calendar year (Model F of Schmidt-Catran & Fairbrother, 2016, p. 25: "country-years as cross-classified within countries and years, and individuals as strictly nested in country-years"); regions are nested in countries and crossed with election studies, since an election

contains several regions and a region appears in several elections (the second case of Snijders & Bosker, 2012, §13.2: a factor "crossed with the level-two units and nested in the level-three units"). The vocabulary of Snijders and Bosker's chapter 13 is the one used: a cross-classified, or multiple-classification, model; not a multiple-membership model, because each respondent belongs to exactly one unit of each type. In the far right's Model 1 the four factors have 20, 56, 98 and 18 levels.

A9.1 Why each level is there. The election intercept is the one that cannot be dropped: the basket varies at the election level, and a predictor must have a random effect at every level at which it varies, otherwise its standard error is computed as if the 20,000 respondents were independent observations of it (Schmidt-Catran & Fairbrother, 2016, pp. 24-28: with about a thousand respondents per country-year the deflation of the standard errors is severe, and only the full model gives correct standard errors for every fixed effect). The country intercept absorbs the stable differences between countries (party system, welfare state, measurement) and is required by the same rule for the *between* terms. The region intercept absorbs stable regional differences and is crossed with elections. The calendar-year intercept lets a European year – 2008, 2015 – be shared by every country voting in it, so that neither the basket nor the controls are credited with a common shock; it is weakly identified (one to six elections per year) and is the level whose omission costs least, because its variance is small (Schmidt-Catran & Fairbrother, 2016, n. 7). The model is estimated by MCMC, which the chapter recommends for crossed designs (Snijders & Bosker, 2012, §13.1-13.2).

A9.2 What the random part does not contain. The cross-level interactions of class with the basket and with time are estimated without a random slope of class by election, and the regional moderators without an election × region cell intercept; Heisig and Schaeffer (2019) and Bell et al. (2019, pp. 1064-1065) show that the intervals of such interactions are then somewhat narrow, since every respondent is treated as independent evidence about them. The posterior intervals of the class and moderation contrasts are read with that caveat (A14).

A10. Estimation

A10.1 Software and sampler. All models are fitted with brms (Bürkner, 2017) on Stan's No-U-Turn sampler: four chains of 2,000 iterations, the first 1,000 of each discarded as warm-up. The moderation models (2a–2d, 5a, 5b, 7b and the mirrors $2a^{x}$–$2d^{x}$) use a target acceptance rate of 0.98 and a maximum tree depth of 12; the time models (1, 3, 4a, 4b, 6a–6d, 7a, 7c and the mirrors 1^{x} and 3^{x}), whose double-demeaned products are identified by twelve countries, use 0.99 and 14. Convergence is checked by the split-$\hat{R}$, the bulk and tail effective sample sizes and the absence of divergent transitions. The five completions of the class variable are fitted separately and their posteriors are pooled, which is the Bayesian form of Rubin's rules; the pooled $\hat{R}$ across completions is reported beside the within-completion $\hat{R}$, and it reflects between-imputation variability rather than convergence.

A10.2 The careful refit. One model showed divergent transitions with the ordinary sampler: the traditional right's Model 2b (five transitions over the five completions). It was refitted as the same model – formula, rows, respondents, priors, iterations and seed – with the sampler of the time models. The rule, fixed in advance, is that the original fit stands if the refit has no divergent transition and no contrast moves by a tenth of a posterior standard deviation or more; otherwise the refit is reported. The original stands.

A10.3 Priors. The priors are weakly informative in the sense of Gelman et al. (2008): they encode the generic knowledge that a typical change of an input rarely moves the log-odds by as much as 5 (from 0.01 to 0.5, or 0.5 to 0.99), and they keep every estimate finite where the data are sparse (elections with very few far-right voters, empty class × election × region cells), where maximum likelihood would separate. Table A4 lists them.

Table A4. Priors

Parameter	Prior	Reason
coefficients	normal(0, 1)	inputs are standardised or binary; 95% prior mass at odds ratios between 0.14 and 7.1 per unit
every term containing a basket (BW, BNW, their twins, WX, BNW^{x}, including class,	normal(0, 0.25)	the unit is one percentage point of cumulative inflation; the within-country SD of BW on the model rows is 2.9 points (A5.3), so this is the scale 2.5/(2·SD) of Gelman et al. (2008, p. 1366) applied in the exposure's own unit, and it is tighter where the data are thinnest (a few dozen elections identify these terms)

Parameter	Prior	Reason
moderator and time products)		
intercept	Student-t(3, 0, 2.5)	the intercept of the centred design; wide enough for far-right base rates between a fraction of a percent and a third, with the election intercepts absorbing the rest
standard deviations of random effects	exponential(1)	a proper, weakly informative prior on the group scales that keeps small variances estimable with twenty countries and eighteen years

Note. The basket scale was fixed from the unit argument before any model was read, not from pilot estimates; a prior chosen after seeing early results would reintroduce the significance filter (Gelman & Carlin, 2014, p. 646).

A10.4 The 20,000-row subsample. Each model is fitted on at most 20,000 respondents (10,000 in the mirrors of the moderation models), drawn by a stratified proportional procedure that keeps every cluster, in three steps: (1) each election × region cell (each election in the national model) receives its proportional share of rows; (2) inside each cell the draw is systematic over the respondents sorted by outcome, class, age group, sex and education, with a fixed seed; (3) a representativeness table compares sample and population on the outcome, the individual variables and the exposures for every fit. The composition of every cell on those variables is therefore reproduced in the sample rather than merely expected, and the same respondents appear in all five completions and in all models of the same family and variant. In the far right's Model 1 the 20,000 rows are drawn from 50,349 eligible respondents in 302 cells, all kept; the largest gap between the sample and the population in any share is 0.21 percentage points and the standardised difference of the exposures 0.001. The cap limits the individual-level precision only; the precision of the basket terms is set by the number of elections, which the cap leaves intact. Survey weights are not used in the models; they enter only the computation of national immigration salience.

A10.5 Verification. Before any model is fitted, an independent step recomputes from the raw downloads the baskets, their *within* and *between* parts, the time products, PHY and SERV, the standardisations and the identities (BW + BNW = total inflation), and runs about 700 integrity checks on the model data, all of which must pass; every model is identified by its formula, priors, data and sampler settings, so that a fitted model is re-read rather than refitted unless one of them changes.

A11. Inference and reporting

A11.1 What is reported. For every model and each quantity the following are reported: the posterior mean, standard deviation, 2.5th, 50th and 97.5th percentiles and P(> 0), the posterior probability that the quantity is positive. The quantities are listed in A8.7. All are on the log-odds scale; the per-SD rows rescale the *within* contrast by the within-country standard deviation of each exposure on the rows used, so that exposures with different units (WX and BW) can be compared; the time models are also translated into percentage points of predicted vote by class over time from 400 posterior draws, and Model 3 into the predicted vote at INS −1 and +1 SD, five years before and after each country's mean election year, with the difference between the two and its change per decade.

A11.2 Why posterior sign probabilities and not p-values. The design is a low-power one for its key quantity: the *within* contrast rests on the 56 election studies minus the country means, and the interaction contrasts (class, moderators, time) on less. Gelman and Carlin (2014, pp. 643-649) show that in such settings a statistically significant estimate is likely to be exaggerated (power below 0.5) and may have the wrong sign (power below 0.1), because significance selects the large draws. The posterior probability of sign under an explicit prior is the direct probability version of their Type S error (their note 4), computed for every quantity and not only for "significant" ones, and the posterior mean under a proper prior is the shrunken magnitude; the explicit prior is what makes these posteriors interpretable (their note 3: a sampling distribution is not a posterior).

A11.3 Moderation contrasts. The *within* contrast at the moderator's mean ± 1 SD is reported together with the difference of the two products. Three conditions make the ±1 SD reading legitimate (Hainmueller et al., 2019, pp. 165, 187): the two evaluation points must lie inside the observed range of the moderator with adequate mass of region-elections (not respondents) near them; the basket must vary among the regions near each point, in several countries; and the linearity of the interaction must be checked. The moderator × covariate products that a fully moderated model would add (Beiser-McGrath & Beiser-McGrath, 2020; Blackwell & Olson, 2022) would be

nuisance parameters, not effects; the design does not estimate a fully moderated model.

A11.4 The between terms and joint comparisons. The *between* terms are reported in every table and never read as effects; their difference from the *within* terms is the contextual gap of Mundlak (1978, eq. 5.8), which the two rows let the reader compute, in place of a Hausman test. H4 is a joint claim about two families fitted separately, so it is reported as the two posterior sign probabilities side by side; the defection models compare the push toward three destinations with different base rates, so the comparison of size between them is made in percentage points of predicted vote.

A11.5 Reading a mirror against its original. Each mirror's contrasts are set beside the original's with the WX labels read as the basket's (estimate, 95% interval, P(> 0), side of zero), the key quantities of the hypothesis marked, and a reading: CONFIRMS when every key quantity that the original has clear of zero the mirror also has, on the same side; SAME DIRECTION when the signs agree but the mirror's interval covers zero; MIXED and CONTRADICTS when they do not agree; NOTHING TO CONFIRM when the original itself has no key quantity clear of zero. The readings compare signs and sides, not sizes: WX and the basket are in different units, and the per-SD rows are the ones to compare.

A11.6 Comparing a model with and without the previous vote. The models of the previous-vote chain (A13.4) are read against their originals by sign and side of zero only. On the logit scale a strong predictor such as the previous vote rescales every coefficient even in the absence of confounding (non-collapsibility; Mood, 2010), so a change of size between the two models is not evidence of confounding, and the percentage-point tables, where the models with the previous vote have blocks of their own, are the place to compare sizes.

A12. The election-level identification diagnostics

A12.1 Procedure. The diagnostics run without MCMC on one row per election – the 56 elections of the far right's Model 1, with the vote shares of the four families, the exposures and the pre-cycle conditions – with country

effects, weights equal to the number of respondents of each election (what the Mundlak split of the models does) and standard errors clustered by country with the small-sample correction. They proceed in seven numbered steps. (1) Relevance: within countries, the observed commodity inflation BW^x on WX,

$$\mathrm{BW}^{x}_{ce} = \pi\,\mathrm{WX}_{ce} + \rho\,\mathrm{BNW}^{x}_{ce} + \alpha_c + \varepsilon_{ce} \tag{14}$$

where π is the first-stage coefficient, α_c the country effect and ε the error, with the rule-of-thumb F above 10; and, for each family's share, the reduced form on WX, the IV estimate (the reduced form over π) and OLS beside it. (2) Balance: the three weights and WX against pre-cycle GDP growth and unemployment, the recalled previous far-right vote and the far-right share of the previous election, across and within countries; the shares should not carry another road to the vote. (3) Rotemberg weights: WX is the sum of three parts, Z_food + Z_fuels + Z_energy, and the WX estimate is the weighted average of the estimates with each part alone, with weights

$$\alpha_k = \frac{Z_k' M x}{\mathrm{WX}' M x}, \qquad \sum_k \alpha_k = 1 \tag{15}$$

where x is the endogenous commodity inflation BW^x and M the residual-maker of the controls (Goldsmith-Pinkham et al., 2020, section III); the weights can be negative and say which commodity carries the design. (4) Commodity by commodity: the first stage, the reduced form and the IV with each part alone, and the overidentification test with the three parts as instruments (Sargan, and Hansen's J with clusters); if the commodities tell different stories, the design leans on one of them. (5) Placebos: the next cycle's WX, controlling for this cycle's, on this election's share (the lead; each country's last election drops out of this test only), and this cycle's WX on the previous election's far-right share (the pre-trend); both should be near zero, and a coefficient of the size of the reduced form means that the exposure picks up trends. (6) The incomplete-shares control of Borusyak et al. (2025): the reduced form, the IV and the placebos repeated with five sets of controls – the base set (A); period bands for the three inflation regimes, before 2009, 2009-2016 and from 2017 (B); B plus the sum of the three weights × period band (C); B plus that sum × year (D); and B plus each weight × period band (E).

(7) Leave-one-country-out: the first stage and the reduced forms without each country with two or more elections; and the six-group decomposition of BW (A5.7). Three cautions govern the reading. World prices are serially correlated, so a lead that is not zero can reflect the persistence of the shocks rather than a failure of the design (Jaeger et al., 2018); it is reported as a warning, not as a veto, and the pre-trend, which does not share the problem, is read with it. With three shocks the exposure-robust inference of Adão et al. (2019), built for many shocks, does not apply; clustering by twenty countries is the practical choice, and the hierarchical intercepts of the models carry the same uncertainty in the Bayesian fits. And the placebos live at the election level because that is where a timing test is identified: a respondent-level version would add computation and no information to it (Moulton, 1990).

A12.2 Results: the first stage. Table A5 reports the first stage. Across the 56 elections the within-country standard deviation of WX is 8.4 points, that of BW^{x} 4.1 points and their within-country correlation 0.61.

Table A5. The first stage: observed commodity inflation on the World-price Basket (56 elections, 20 countries)

Regression	π	SE	F	partial R^2
BW^{x} on WX (the main first stage)	0.137	0.033	16.7	0.243
BW^{x} on WX, with period bands (before 2009, 2009-2016, 2017 and after)	0.114	0.053	4.6	0.129
BW^{x} on WX, unweighted (one election, one weight)	0.137	0.039	12.6	0.165
BW^{x} on WX, without BNW^{x} as a control	0.196	0.035	32.2	0.318
BW (the six-group basket) on WX	0.147	0.033	19.6	0.239

Note. π is in points of observed inflation of the three groups per point of WX, within a country; well below 1 is expected, since the HICP price includes taxes, margins and domestic costs. Standard errors clustered by country; $F = t^2$ (one instrument). Without each country with two or more elections, F ranges from 9.8 (without Austria) to 43.3 (without Romania) and π from 0.111 to 0.153.

A12.3 Results: the vote at the election level. Table A6 reports, for each family, the reduced form of its vote share on WX, the IV estimate and OLS, with BNW^{x} and country effects as controls.

Table A6. Reduced form, IV and OLS of the vote share at the election level (percentage points of the family's share per point)

Family	Reduced form (share on WX)	IV (share on BW^{x}, instrumented by WX)	OLS (share on BW^{x})	Anderson–Rubin p	Elections
Far right	−0.273 (0.068)	−2.000 (0.743)	−0.287 (0.273)	0.001	56
Socialist left	0.391 (0.121)	2.864 (1.140)	1.298 (0.556)	0.004	56
Traditional right	0.134 (0.117)	0.984 (0.966)	−0.480 (0.192)	0.264	56
Greens	−0.035 (0.089)	−0.214 (0.573)	0.132 (0.235)	0.695	39

Note. Standard errors clustered by country in parentheses. These are diagnostics of the design on 56 observations, not the paper's estimates: the paper's estimates are the respondent-level posterior contrasts of A8.7. An IV far from OLS means that the domestic part of inflation (taxes, margins, regulated prices) moves with the vote in its own way.

A12.4 Results: balance. Across countries, with pooled standardised coefficients, the sum of the three commodity weights is correlated with the recalled previous far-right vote (0.276, SE 0.070) and the fuels weight more so (0.470, SE 0.109), as budget shares that index income are expected to be; the joint test of the four covariates on the summed weight, on the 29 elections where all four are observed, does not reject balance across countries ($F = 2.32$, $p = 0.112$) but rejects it within countries ($F = 12.9$, $p < 0.001$), where the fuels weight falls with pre-cycle GDP growth (−0.102, SE 0.033) and the food weight rises with it (0.220, SE 0.110). WX itself is correlated with pre-cycle GDP growth across countries (0.243, SE 0.090) and within them (1.37, SE 0.66), and the joint tests on WX, estimated on the 29 elections where all four covariates are observed, do not reject balance ($p = 0.514$ across, 0.847 within). The reading is the one stated in A1.2: the shares are generic, not tailored, so the identification rests on changes within countries and on the controls for the pre-cycle conditions, and the within-country movement of the weights with growth is one reason to read the lead placebo with care.

A12.5 Results: Rotemberg weights, commodity by commodity and overidentification. Table A7 reports which commodity carries the design and whether the three agree.

Table A7. Rotemberg weights, own first stages and commodity-by-commodity estimates (far right and socialist left)

Commodity	Rotemberg α	Own first stage π (F)	Share of the within variance of WX	FR: reduced form (SE)	FR: IV (SE)	SOC: reduced form (SE)	SOC: IV (SE)
Food	0.486	0.247 (10.8)	0.269	−0.485 (0.146)	−1.963 (0.809)	0.615 (0.279)	2.491 (0.939)
Motor fuels	0.309	0.509 (18.0)	0.083	−0.917 (0.224)	−1.804 (0.703)	1.530 (0.416)	3.009 (1.084)
Household energy	0.204	0.326 (5.1)	0.086	−0.777 (0.206)	−2.383 (1.200)	1.151 (0.455)	3.530 (2.166)

Note. The Rotemberg weights sum to one over the three commodities. Overidentification test with the three parts as instruments (H0: the commodities agree): far right, Sargan $p = 0.661$, Hansen J $p = 0.740$; socialist left, 0.556 and 0.603; traditional right, 0.363 and 0.603; greens, 0.495 and 0.556. With twenty clusters the J statistic is fragile and is read beside the commodity rows, not alone. Food carries about half of the design, and the three commodities tell the same story for the far right and the socialist left.

A12.6 Results: placebos and the incomplete-shares control. Table A8 reports the reduced form of the far right and the two placebos under the five control sets of step (6), and the lead placebo of the other families.

Table A8. Reduced form, lead and pre-trend placebos under five control sets (percentage points of the share per point of WX)

Quantity	A: base	B: + period bands	C: B + core weight × band	D: B + core weight × year	E: B + each weight × band
First stage: BW^{s} on WX, π (F)	0.137 (16.7)	0.114 (4.6)	0.157 (30.4)	0.128 (5.4)	0.178 (24.0)
Far right: reduced form	−0.273 (0.068)***	−0.108 (0.060)*	−0.058 (0.074)	−0.103 (0.058)*	−0.002 (0.119)
Far right: IV	−2.000 (0.743)***	−0.945 (0.612)	−0.370 (0.447)	−0.805 (0.548)	−0.012 (0.670)
Far right: lead (the next cycle's WX; ≈ 0 expected)	−0.228 (0.132)*	−0.414 (0.145)***	−0.415 (0.196)**	−0.462 (0.144)***	n.e.
Far right: pre-trend (this WX on the previous share; ≈ 0 expected)	−0.079 (0.159)	−0.011 (0.214)	−0.033 (0.236)	−0.095 (0.127)	−0.121 (0.265)
Socialist left: reduced form	0.391 (0.121)***	0.059 (0.124)	0.035 (0.111)	0.054 (0.126)	0.255 (0.163)
Socialist left: lead	−0.059 (0.173)	−0.336 (0.066)***	−0.228 (0.126)*	−0.395 (0.120)***	n.e.
Traditional right: reduced form	0.134 (0.117)	0.055 (0.173)	−0.011 (0.139)	0.052 (0.189)	−0.073 (0.232)
Traditional right: lead	0.228 (0.111)**	0.921 (0.285)***	0.963 (0.357)***	0.926 (0.330)***	n.e.
Greens: reduced form	−0.035 (0.089)	0.135 (0.133)	0.172 (0.108)	0.184 (0.090)**	0.052 (0.167)

Note. Standard errors clustered by country in parentheses; * p < .10, ** p < .05, *** p < .01. The lead uses the 28 elections whose next cycle is in the data and the pre-trend the 30 whose previous election is; n.e. = not estimable (fewer than five residual degrees of freedom). The greens' lead is −0.011 (0.103) on 20 elections.

A12.7 Results: the six groups of BW. Table A9 reports the share of the within-country variation of BW that each group carries and how much of each family's election-level slope on BW runs through each group.

Table A9. The six groups of Weber's Basket at the election level

Group	World-priced	Mean contribution (pp)	Share of the variance within of BW	Contribution to the slope: FR	SOC	TR	GR
Food	yes	1.398	0.462	0.075	0.187	−0.255	0.199
Actual rents	no	0.453	0.018	−0.021	0.052	0.056	0.037
Water and dwelling services	no	0.263	0.057	−0.021	0.050	−0.017	0.027
Household energy	yes	0.776	0.288	−0.241	0.516	0.092	−0.101
Motor fuels	yes	0.291	0.124	−0.101	0.286	−0.064	0.015
Land passenger transport	no	0.177	0.050	−0.038	0.085	0.000	−0.003

Note. The six contributions add up to BW for every election. The OLS slope of each family's share on BW at the election level (clustered SE) is −0.346 (0.229) for the far right, 1.176 (0.505) for the socialist left, −0.187 (0.196) for the traditional right and 0.174 (0.204) for the greens; the group contributions sum to it. Food carries 46 per cent of the within-country variation of the basket, household energy 29 per cent and motor fuels 12 per cent; the three world-priced groups together carry 87 per cent.

A12.8 The reading these diagnostics license. The instrument is relevant in the base specification (F = 16.7) but weak once period bands are added (F = 4.6), and the commodities agree. The election-level reduced forms of the far right and the socialist left vanish under the period-band and incomplete-shares controls (the shift of the far right's reduced form between sets A and C is 3.1 standard errors), and the lead placebo fails for the far right and the traditional right while the pre-trend passes. Taken together, the design at the election level picks up the common inflation episodes and their trends as much as the differential exposure to them; the world-price mirrors are therefore read as a check on the sign and side of zero of the basket models, never as a replacement for them, and the balance results of A12.4 are the reason the identification is stated as an argument about changes within countries rather than about levels of the shares.

A13. Robustness

A13.1 Taxes. Model 4a is Model 1 on the same rows with the chained constant-tax basket; the difference between its contrasts and the nominal ones measures the share of the effect that runs through indirect taxation, in the elections where the constant-tax series covers most of the window. Model 4b estimates that share directly, on the same rows and respondents (A8.4). The wedge assumes, as Eurostat's HICP at constant tax rates does, full and immediate pass-through of tax changes; pass-through is close to full for changes in the standard VAT rate but lower for reduced rates (Benedek et al., 2020), smaller for cuts than for increases (Benzarti et al., 2020), 57-77 per cent in the French reforms studied by Carbonnier (2007), and complete on average for fuel excises (Marion & Muehlegger, 2011), so, change by change, the wedge overstates the price effect of a tax change, and over a cycle that mixes rises and cuts the net wedge can err in either direction. Read with Models 5a and 5b, these models separate the punishment of a government's own tax policy from the market component of the shock – a reading across two models, since none interacts the wedge with incumbency; together they

are the first cross-test set out in the Theoretical Discussion and Hypotheses section.

A13.2 The rest of inflation as a negative-control exposure. BNW is built from the same index, the same window, the same base year and the same weights convention as BW, and it enters the same model; it therefore shares with BW essentially every macro-level common cause of the far-right vote – the business cycle, monetary conditions, world commodity prices, fiscal policy, election timing and the survey's own conventions – which is the U-comparability that Lipsitch et al. (2010) require of a negative-control exposure. A *within* contrast close to zero would mean that the basket does not matter more than inflation in general, whether because any inflation moves votes or because both are confounded by cycle-level conditions. Two qualifications are stated in the paper. The defining condition of a negative control – that it does not cause the outcome – is not credible for BNW, so the comparison is one of specificity (Hill's criterion, in Lipsitch et al.'s reading) and not a placebo; and confounders specific to the basket's components (energy shocks with geopolitical events, food shocks with the 2008 crisis, rents with migration-driven housing demand) are invisible to it. The PHY moderation is the second specificity test: PHY is made of cars, heating and tenancy, so it should amplify BW and not BNW; a symmetric amplification would point to generic vulnerability rather than to the basket.

A13.3 The world-price mirrors. The twenty-four mirrors (A5.6) are the shift-share instrument version of the hypothesis tests: a basket effect that survives when the shift is a world price that no national election controls is not the product of a domestic price path that governments, margins or the election itself could have moved. Each mirror is read against its original (A11.5), and the diagnostics of A12 say whether the instrument is relevant, whether the shares are balanced, which commodity carries it and whether the placebos are quiet. The mirrors confirm or fail to confirm the readings of the basket models; they do not replace them, because their shift is three world prices in four common swings (A14).

A13.4 The previous-vote chain and its gate. Before Models 7a–7c, an election-level test without MCMC and a data-quality gate run. The test

estimates the reduced form, the IV and the OLS of the far-right share on the exposures in four samples – every election; the elections with the recalled vote; the same with the share that recalls a far-right vote as a control; and with the change (the share now minus the recalled share, on the same respondents) as the outcome – and reports them: an estimate that keeps its size under the recalled control is not the persistence of earlier far-right voting, and an association with the change is a movement of voters. The test decides nothing. The gate applies four criteria fixed before any result was seen: C1, the previous vote known and classified for at least half of the voters in at least 80 per cent of the elections; C2, the recalled far-right share correlated at $r \geq 0.70$, on at least ten elections whose previous election is in the CSES and had a far-right offer, with the share that election's own survey measured – because the recalled vote is reported after the election and drifts toward the current one (Dassonneville & Hooghe, 2017; Himmelweit et al., 1978; van Elsas et al., 2014); C3, at least 400 converts (far right now, not far right last time) expected in a 20,000-row sample of the conversion model, about ten events per coefficient; and C4, for the conversion model only, no country with two or more elections losing all of them – an individual election may leave, a consolidated series never. All four criteria were met, and the three models were estimated (A8.6). The previous vote is a post-treatment variable – the cycle's basket inflation may itself have moved it – so these models never stand alone: a result that survives it is one that is not mere persistence, a result among the converts is a movement of voters, and both are read beside the original by sign and side of zero (A11.6).

A15. Results of complementary tests

This section reports the complementary results to which the Results section refers: the specification curve of the far right (A15.1), the previous-vote chain (A15.2), the readings of the twenty-four world-price mirrors (A15.3), the inference on the election-level two-stage estimates and their stability when one country is left out (A15.4), and the convergence, sampling and random-slope diagnostics of every model (A15.5). The quantities follow the conventions of A11; the election-level diagnostics of A12 are not repeated.

A15.1 The specification curve of the far right. Table A10 lists the far right's contrast in every specification of the paper, in the manner of Simonsohn et al. (2020), with the contrast averaged over classes beside its basket and rest-of-inflation parts. Averaged over classes, δ is positive in all eleven specifications that use the basket, and its interval excludes zero in none. The specifications fall into two groups that differ in one block: those with the *within*-country time terms (Models 1, 3, 4a and 4b) give 0.10 to 0.17, with probabilities between 0.83 and 0.93 that the contrast is positive, and those without them (Models 2a to 2d) give 0.05 to 0.07, with probabilities between 0.64 and 0.76. The comparison that isolates the time terms is the one between Models 2b and 3, which share the moderation by INS and differ in the time terms: 0.072 without them, 0.117 with them. The far-right vote rises within countries – in Model 1, by 0.78 on the log-odds scale per decade among workers [0.17, 1.38], by 0.40 in the intermediate class [−0.23, 1.01] and by 0.87 in the salariat [0.18, 1.54], with probabilities of 0.99, 0.90 and 0.99 that it rises – and a specification without the trend leaves that rise to be absorbed by whatever covaries with time, the exposures included; the contrast is larger once the trend is modelled. The two models with the previous vote and the conversion model keep the sign at a smaller size (A15.2). The six mirrors lie between −0.026 and 0.026 per point of WX; for Model 1^{x}, on the scale of the basket, the interval contains both zero and the original's estimate (Results, Table 8).

Table A10. The specification curve of the far right

Specification	Model	Time terms	Respondents	Elections	δ (δ^{x}), average over classes	BW (WX) alone, per point	BNW (BNW^{x}) alone, per point
Nominal basket	Model 1	yes	20,000	56	0.143 [−0.076, 0.359] (0.910)	0.067 [−0.028, 0.162] (0.918)	−0.072 [−0.216, 0.074] (0.162)
Basket at constant taxes	Model 4a	yes	20,000	56	0.101 [−0.109, 0.310] (0.833)	0.060 [−0.035, 0.154] (0.901)	−0.059 [−0.204, 0.085] (0.200)
Tax split: market part	Model 4b	yes	20,000	56	0.174 [−0.059, 0.402] (0.930)	0.081 [−0.024, 0.183] (0.936)	−0.083 [−0.234, 0.068] (0.138)
Insecurity over time, at the mean of INS	Model 3	yes	20,000	56	0.117 [−0.099, 0.329] (0.863)	0.063 [−0.029, 0.155] (0.913)	−0.054 [−0.193, 0.086] (0.218)
Moderation by PHY, at the mean	Model 2a	no	20,000	56	0.065 [−0.157, 0.281] (0.724)	0.005 [−0.108, 0.117] (0.539)	−0.046 [−0.194, 0.101] (0.267)

Specification	Model	Time terms	Respondents	Elections	δ (δ^x), average over classes	BW (WX) alone, per point	BNW (BNW^x) alone, per point
Moderation by INS, at the mean	Model 2b	no	20,000	56	0.072 [−0.140, 0.281] (0.758)	0.025 [−0.060, 0.108] (0.722)	−0.034 [−0.184, 0.114] (0.324)
Moderation by SERV, at the mean	Model 2c	no	20,000	56	0.066 [−0.142, 0.265] (0.741)	−0.005 [−0.097, 0.086] (0.464)	−0.059 [−0.202, 0.086] (0.208)
Moderation by GDP (national), at the mean	Model 2d	no	20,000	56	0.051 [−0.214, 0.323] (0.644)	0.043 [−0.059, 0.150] (0.796)	−0.005 [−0.196, 0.183] (0.479)
Model 1 with the previous vote	Model 7a	yes	20,000	56	0.019 [−0.243, 0.280] (0.557)	−0.003 [−0.126, 0.119] (0.481)	−0.029 [−0.200, 0.143] (0.373)
Model 2a with the previous vote	Model 7b	no	20,000	56	0.007 [−0.253, 0.264] (0.519)	−0.019 [−0.150, 0.109] (0.390)	−0.031 [−0.204, 0.137] (0.365)
Conversion: not far right last time	Model 7c	yes	20,000	51	0.043 [−0.242, 0.332] (0.618)	0.008 [−0.149, 0.166] (0.538)	0.014 [−0.171, 0.198] (0.564)
Mirror of Model 1	Model 1^x	yes	20,000	56	0.003 [−0.108, 0.112] (0.529)	−0.008 [−0.051, 0.034] (0.348)	−0.006 [−0.104, 0.095] (0.453)
Mirror of Model 2a	Model $2a^x$	no	10,000	56	0.011 [−0.112, 0.133] (0.572)	−0.017 [−0.052, 0.018] (0.157)	−0.012 [−0.127, 0.103] (0.422)
Mirror of Model 2b	Model $2b^x$	no	10,000	56	−0.025 [−0.133, 0.082] (0.324)	−0.017 [−0.051, 0.018] (0.172)	0.025 [−0.068, 0.118] (0.706)
Mirror of Model 2c	Model $2c^x$	no	10,000	56	0.026 [−0.093, 0.140] (0.676)	−0.018 [−0.052, 0.016] (0.142)	−0.029 [−0.137, 0.082] (0.290)
Mirror of Model 2d (national)	Model $2d^x$	no	10,000	56	−0.026 [−0.142, 0.085] (0.331)	−0.020 [−0.054, 0.015] (0.129)	0.026 [−0.074, 0.129] (0.692)
Mirror of Model 3, at the mean of INS	Model 3^x	yes	20,000	56	−0.022 [−0.140, 0.097] (0.350)	−0.015 [−0.060, 0.028] (0.237)	0.007 [−0.096, 0.110] (0.555)

Note. Log-odds scale; posterior mean, 95% interval and P(>0). δ is averaged over classes, except in Models 3 and 3^x, which have no class products, so that their contrast holds for every class; the two parts are per point and in the reference category of class. Moderation models are read at the mean of the moderator, time models at each country's mean year. In the mirrors, $\delta^x = WX - BNW^x$ and the parts are WX and BNW^x, in their own units; the mirrors of the moderation models are estimated on 10,000 respondents. Model 7c is estimated among those who did not vote far right last time (20,000 of 41,232 respondents).

A15.2 The previous-vote chain. The four criteria of A13.4 were met, and the three models of the chain were estimated (A8.6). Table A11 reports them. Persistence is very large: a respondent who recalls a far-right vote at the previous election has log-odds of a far-right vote 3.54 higher than one who does not, about 34 times the odds, and the category of an unknown previous vote lies in between (0.78). With the previous vote in the model, the far right's contrast falls from 0.143 to 0.019 in Model 7a and from 0.065 to 0.007 in Model 7b; it is 0.026 among those who did not vote far right last time and

−0.031 among those who did, and its moderation by the previous vote is −0.057 (P(>0) = 0.249). Among the converts of Model 7c it is 0.043 [−0.242, 0.332]. The shrinkage is not a scale artefact: adding a strong predictor inflates a true logit coefficient rather than shrinking it (Mood, 2010). But the recalled vote is reported after the election and drifts toward the vote just cast (Himmelweit et al., 1978; van Elsas et al., 2014), so it absorbs part of the current vote it is meant to precede; Models 7a and 7b give a conservative bound on the contrast net of persistence, not a refutation of it. The moderation by the previous vote in its *between* part, 0.193 [0.043, 0.342], compares countries and is not read as an effect.

Table A11. The previous-vote chain of the far right (Models 7a–7c)

Model	Original δ, average over classes	δ with the previous vote	… among those who did not vote far right last time (conversion)	… among those who did (retention)	… previous vote unknown	Moderation by the previous vote: (BW × prev) − (BNW × prev)	Persistence (log-odds): far right last time − not far right
Model 7a	0.143 [−0.076, 0.359] (0.910)	0.019 [−0.243, 0.280] (0.557)	0.026 [−0.237, 0.292] (0.576)	−0.031 [−0.324, 0.259] (0.413)	0.002 [−0.316, 0.315] (0.506)	−0.057 [−0.226, 0.110] (0.249)	3.536 [3.388, 3.685]
Model 7b	0.065 [−0.157, 0.281] (0.724)	0.007 [−0.253, 0.264] (0.519)	0.013 [−0.250, 0.275] (0.541)	−0.043 [−0.334, 0.245] (0.385)	−0.008 [−0.311, 0.295] (0.484)	−0.056 [−0.223, 0.113] (0.260)	3.536 [3.389, 3.686]
Model 7c (20,000 of 41,232 respondents; 51 elections)	0.143 [−0.076, 0.359] (0.910)	0.043 [−0.242, 0.332] (0.618) (the conversion population itself)	–	–	–	–	–

Note. Log-odds scale; posterior mean, 95% interval and P(>0). Models 7a and 7b keep the rows and respondents of their originals (Models 1 and 2a), with the centred previous-vote categories and their products with the four exposure terms; their contrasts are averages over the previous-vote groups. Persistence has a posterior probability of 1.000 of being positive.

A15.3 The readings of the world-price mirrors. Table A12 gives the reading of each of the twenty-four mirrors against its original, by the categories of A11.5 applied to the key quantities of each hypothesis: CONFIRMS when every key quantity that the original has away from zero the mirror also has, on the same side; SAME DIRECTION when the signs agree but the mirror's interval covers zero; MIXED or CONTRADICTS when they do not agree; NOTHING TO CONFIRM when the original has no key quantity away from zero. No mirror reads MIXED or CONTRADICTS.

Table A12. The readings of the twenty-four world-price mirrors

Mirror	Far right	Socialist left	Traditional right	Greens
Model 1ˣ (H1, H2)	NOTHING TO CONFIRM	CONFIRMS	CONFIRMS	NOTHING TO CONFIRM
Model 2aˣ (H1a)	NOTHING TO CONFIRM	CONFIRMS	NOTHING TO CONFIRM	NOTHING TO CONFIRM
Model 2bˣ (H1b)	NOTHING TO CONFIRM	NOTHING TO CONFIRM	NOTHING TO CONFIRM	NOTHING TO CONFIRM
Model 2cˣ (H1c)	NOTHING TO CONFIRM	NOTHING TO CONFIRM	NOTHING TO CONFIRM	NOTHING TO CONFIRM
Model 2dˣ (H1d)	NOTHING TO CONFIRM	NOTHING TO CONFIRM	NOTHING TO CONFIRM	NOTHING TO CONFIRM
Model 3ˣ (H3)	NOTHING TO CONFIRM	SAME DIRECTION	SAME DIRECTION	NOTHING TO CONFIRM

Note. The readings compare signs and sides of zero, not sizes. The CONFIRMS of the socialist left and of the traditional right in Model 1ˣ rest on BNWˣ, the rest of inflation outside the commodity core, not on WX (Results, Table 8); the CONFIRMS of the socialist left in Model 2aˣ concerns its *within* contrast, and its moderation by PHY goes the same way (0.029, P(>0) = 0.953).

A15.4 Inference on the election-level two-stage estimates. Table A13 completes Table A6 with the Wald intervals of the two-stage estimates, the Anderson–Rubin 95% sets, which remain valid when the instrument is weak (Anderson & Rubin, 1949), and the range of the reduced form when each of the fifteen countries with two or more elections is left out. No country carries the reduced forms: the far right's stays between −0.310 and −0.245 and the socialist left's between 0.302 and 0.463, without a change of sign. The first stage, without each such country, has an F between 9.8 (without Austria) and 43.3 (without Romania), as Table A5 notes. These estimates are computed without period bands; with them, and with the controls for incomplete shares, the reduced forms of the far right and the socialist left vanish (Table A8), which is why they are diagnostics of the design and not estimates of the paper.

Table A13. Election-level two-stage estimates: Wald and Anderson–Rubin inference, and leaving one country out

Family	2SLS (s.e.)	Wald 95%	Anderson–Rubin p	Anderson–Rubin 95% set	Reduced form, all countries (s.e.)	Reduced form without one country: range	Sign changes
Far right	−2.000 (0.743)	[−3.555, −0.444]	0.001	[−4.784, −0.822]	−0.273 (0.068)	−0.310 to −0.245	0 of 15
Socialist left	2.864 (1.140)	[0.477, 5.251]	0.004	[0.937, 6.874]	0.391 (0.121)	0.302 to 0.463	0 of 15
Traditional right	0.984 (0.966)	[−1.038, 3.007]	0.264	[−0.713, 4.252]	0.134 (0.117)	0.074 to 0.205	0 of 15
Greens	−0.214 (0.573)	[−1.423, 0.995]	0.695	[−2.233, 0.701]	−0.035 (0.089)	−0.077 to 0.068	1 of 15

Note. Percentage points of the family's share per point of observed commodity inflation (2SLS) or of WX (reduced form); one observation per election, weighted by its respondents; country effects and BNWˣ as controls; standard errors clustered by country. The greens are estimated on the 39 elections with a green offer.

A15.5 Convergence, sampling and the random slope of class. The paper rests on 66 fits: Models 1, 2a–2d, 3, 4a and 4b of the four families, Models 5a and 5b of the traditional right, the four previous-vote populations, the three models of the previous-vote chain, the twenty-four mirrors and the re-estimation of the traditional right's Model 2b. Table A14 reports their diagnostics. Five findings summarise it.

(1) *Divergent transitions.* Only one fit had divergent transitions, the traditional right's Model 2b (five across the five completions). Re-estimated with the sampler of the time models, it had none, and no contrast moved by a tenth of a posterior standard deviation or more (the largest move was 0.024); by the rule fixed in advance, the original stands (A10.2).

(2) $\hat{R}$ *and effective sample size.* The largest split-$\hat{R}$ within completions is at most 1.027 in every fit (1.018 in the re-estimation); it exceeds 1.01 in 20 fits and 1.015 in five – the traditional right's Models 2a (1.016), 2b (1.027, and 1.018 re-estimated) and 5a (1.015), and Model 6a among its former voters (1.017). The smallest effective sample size ranges from 231 (the traditional right's Model 2b; 332 re-estimated) to 1,035, and is below 400 in eight fits, all of the traditional right or of its former voters except the socialist left's Model $2a^{x}$ (390). By the criteria of Vehtari et al. (2021) – $\hat{R}$ below 1.01 and an effective sample size above 400 with four chains – 22 fits are at the margin in their worst parameter; by the classical criterion of $\hat{R}$ below 1.05, every fit passes. The diagnostics are computed over all the parameters of each fit, group-level standard deviations included.

(3) $\hat{R}$ *across completions.* Pooled across the five completions of the class variable, $\hat{R}$ lies between 1.09 and 1.41. This is not a convergence diagnostic: the completions differ in the imputed class, the dispersion between them appears as an $\hat{R}$ above one, and the estimation software (Bürkner, 2017) itself reports that the overall $\hat{R}$ and effective sample sizes of multiply imputed fits are not informative. The contrasts pool the 20,000 draws of the five completions and carry that dispersion, as multiple imputation requires.

(4) *Samples.* All 62 capped fits reproduce their populations: the largest gap between sample and population in any share is 0.68 percentage points, the largest standardised difference of the exposures 0.002, and every election

× region cell is kept (302 of 302 in the main regional models). The mirrors of the moderation models are fitted on 10,000 respondents, another draw from the same population, so their difference from the original mixes sample and exposure; the mirrors of the time models use the same 20,000 respondents as their originals; and the four previous-vote populations use all their eligible respondents (14,036 to 17,126).

(5) *The random slope of class.* A check run on 32 fits – Models 1, 2a–2d, 4a and 4b of the four families and the four previous-vote populations – asks whether the class gaps vary across elections more than a model without a class random slope allows. A dispersion test flags 22 fits (the gap between workers and the salariat varies 45 to 193 per cent more than the model allows); a likelihood-ratio test in a frequentist re-estimation flags none; and adding the random slope would widen the standard errors of the class products by 0 to 10 per cent at the median of each fit, and by 20 per cent at most. The class quantities of H2 are null, so wider intervals would not change their reading, and the intervals of the class and moderation contrasts are read with the caution stated in A9.2 and A14.

Table A14. Convergence and sampling diagnostics of the 66 fits

Model	Family	Respondents	Elections	Divergent transitions	Max $\hat{R}$ (within completions)	Pooled $\hat{R}$ (across completions)	Min ESS	Sampler: target acceptance / max tree depth	Class random-slope check
Model 1	FR	20,000	56	0	1.0111	1.219	428	0.99 / 14	flagged
Model 1	SOC	20,000	56	0	1.0089	1.220	860	0.99 / 14	flagged
Model 1	TR	20,000	56	0	1.0077	1.196	568	0.99 / 14	flagged
Model 1	GR	20,000	39	0	1.0076	1.226	879	0.99 / 14	not flagged
Model 1ˣ	FR	20,000	56	0	1.0075	1.261	951	0.99 / 14	–
Model 1ˣ	SOC	20,000	56	0	1.0066	1.399	969	0.99 / 14	–
Model 1ˣ	TR	20,000	56	0	1.0068	1.271	544	0.99 / 14	–
Model 1ˣ	GR	20,000	39	0	1.0118	1.160	664	0.99 / 14	–
Model 2a	FR	20,000	56	0	1.0073	1.137	796	0.98 / 12	flagged
Model 2a	SOC	20,000	56	0	1.0091	1.208	924	0.98 / 12	flagged
Model 2a	TR	20,000	56	0	1.0163	1.110	355	0.98 / 12	flagged

Model	Family	Respondents	Elections	Divergent transitions	Max R̂ (within completions)	Pooled R̂ (across completions)	Min ESS	Sampler: target acceptance / max tree depth	Class random-slope check
Model 2a	GR	20,000	39	0	1.0091	1.229	848	0.98 / 12	not flagged
Model 2a[x]	FR	10,000	56	0	1.0097	1.224	682	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2a[x]	SOC	10,000	56	0	1.0087	1.243	390	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2a[x]	TR	10,000	56	0	1.0111	1.117	374	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2a[x]	GR	10,000	39	0	1.0067	1.167	1,030	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2b	FR	20,000	56	0	1.0075	1.139	675	0.98 / 12	flagged
Model 2b	SOC	20,000	56	0	1.0046	1.201	977	0.98 / 12	flagged
Model 2b	TR	20,000	56	5	1.0265	1.111	231	0.98 / 12	flagged
Model 2b	GR	20,000	39	0	1.0079	1.232	827	0.98 / 12	not flagged
Model 2b, re-estimated	TR	20,000	56	0	1.0181	1.112	332	0.99 / 14	–
Model 2b[x]	FR	10,000	56	0	1.0106	1.223	677	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2b[x]	SOC	10,000	56	0	1.0067	1.246	732	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2b[x]	TR	10,000	56	0	1.0128	1.121	499	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2b[x]	GR	10,000	39	0	1.0133	1.155	589	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2c	FR	20,000	56	0	1.0092	1.143	652	0.98 / 12	flagged
Model 2c	SOC	20,000	56	0	1.0095	1.206	759	0.98 / 12	flagged
Model 2c	TR	20,000	56	0	1.0128	1.114	359	0.98 / 12	flagged
Model 2c	GR	20,000	39	0	1.0075	1.228	818	0.98 / 12	not flagged
Model 2c[x]	FR	10,000	56	0	1.0102	1.225	708	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2c[x]	SOC	10,000	56	0	1.0069	1.255	643	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2c[x]	TR	10,000	56	0	1.0080	1.124	459	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2c[x]	GR	10,000	39	0	1.0080	1.154	828	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2d	FR	20,000	56	0	1.0084	1.166	584	0.98 / 12	flagged
Model 2d	SOC	20,000	56	0	1.0068	1.094	744	0.98 / 12	flagged
Model 2d	TR	20,000	56	0	1.0086	1.205	594	0.98 / 12	flagged
Model 2d	GR	20,000	39	0	1.0088	1.214	782	0.98 / 12	flagged
Model 2d[x]	FR	10,000	56	0	1.0084	1.145	864	0.98 / 12	–

Model	Family	Respondents	Elections	Divergent transitions	Max R̂ (within completions)	Pooled R̂ (across completions)	Min ESS	Sampler: target acceptance / max tree depth	Class random-slope check
Model 2dˣ	SOC	10,000	56	0	1.0136	1.266	575	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2dˣ	TR	10,000	56	0	1.0077	1.245	583	0.98 / 12	–
Model 2dˣ	GR	10,000	39	0	1.0066	1.410	1,035	0.98 / 12	–
Model 3	FR	20,000	56	0	1.0097	1.115	754	0.99 / 14	–
Model 3	SOC	20,000	56	0	1.0064	1.196	875	0.99 / 14	–
Model 3	TR	20,000	56	0	1.0100	1.101	454	0.99 / 14	–
Model 3	GR	20,000	39	0	1.0069	1.115	717	0.99 / 14	–
Model 3ˣ	FR	20,000	56	0	1.0083	1.114	698	0.99 / 14	–
Model 3ˣ	SOC	20,000	56	0	1.0061	1.205	850	0.99 / 14	–
Model 3ˣ	TR	20,000	56	0	1.0062	1.093	544	0.99 / 14	–
Model 3ˣ	GR	20,000	39	0	1.0111	1.113	405	0.99 / 14	–
Model 4a	FR	20,000	56	0	1.0139	1.205	783	0.99 / 14	flagged
Model 4a	SOC	20,000	56	0	1.0099	1.215	917	0.99 / 14	flagged
Model 4a	TR	20,000	56	0	1.0076	1.219	393	0.99 / 14	flagged
Model 4a	GR	20,000	39	0	1.0064	1.269	933	0.99 / 14	not flagged
Model 4b	FR	20,000	56	0	1.0097	1.195	776	0.99 / 14	not flagged
Model 4b	SOC	20,000	56	0	1.0134	1.233	419	0.99 / 14	flagged
Model 4b	TR	20,000	56	0	1.0088	1.244	598	0.99 / 14	flagged
Model 4b	GR	20,000	39	0	1.0084	1.238	746	0.99 / 14	not flagged
Model 5a	TR	20,000	56	0	1.0154	1.111	409	0.98 / 12	–
Model 5b	TR	20,000	56	0	1.0101	1.109	427	0.98 / 12	–
Model 6a	TR → FR	17,126	50	0	1.0166	1.159	363	0.99 / 14	flagged
Model 6b	TR → SOC	17,126	50	0	1.0070	1.191	767	0.99 / 14	not flagged
Model 6c	TR → GR	14,036	35	0	1.0077	1.179	927	0.99 / 14	not flagged
Model 6d	SOC → FR	14,634	51	0	1.0099	1.278	592	0.99 / 14	not flagged
Model 7a	FR	20,000	56	0	1.0083	1.203	512	0.99 / 14	–
Model 7b	FR	20,000	56	0	1.0095	1.126	527	0.98 / 12	–

Model	Family	Respondents	Elections	Divergent transitions	Max R̂ (within completions)	Pooled R̂ (across completions)	Min ESS	Sampler: target acceptance / max tree depth	Class random-slope check
Model 7c	FR (not FR last time)	20,000	51	0	1.0148	1.267	554	0.99 / 14	–

Note. Four chains of 2,000 iterations (1,000 of warm-up) on each of the five completions of the class variable. Max R̂: the largest split-R̂ within completions, over all parameters; pooled R̂: across completions, not a convergence diagnostic (item 3 above); min ESS: the smallest bulk effective sample size. Class random-slope check: "flagged" when the dispersion test indicates that the class gaps vary across elections at least 20 per cent more than the model allows, with $p < 0.05$; "–" when the fit was not checked.

A16. References

Abadie, A., Athey, S., Imbens, G. W., & Wooldridge, J. M. (2023). When should you adjust standard errors for clustering? *Quarterly Journal of Economics, 138*(1), 1-35.

Abou-Chadi, T., Cohen, D., & Kurer, T. (2024). Rental market risk and radical right support. *Comparative Political Studies*. Advance online publication. https://doi.org/10.1177/00104140241306963

Abou-Chadi, T., Cohen, D., & Wagner, M. (2022). The centre-right versus the radical right: The role of migration issues and economic grievances. *Journal of Ethnic and Migration Studies, 48*(2), 366-384. https://doi.org/10.1080/1369183X.2020.1853903

Abou-Chadi, T., & Kurer, T. (2021). Economic risk within the household and voting for the radical right. *World Politics, 73*(3), 482-511. https://doi.org/10.1017/S0043887121000046

Adão, R., Kolesár, M., & Morales, E. (2019). Shift-share designs: Theory and inference. *Quarterly Journal of Economics, 134*(4), 1949-2010.

Akkerman, T. (2016). Conclusions. In T. Akkerman, S. L. de Lange, & M. Rooduijn (Eds.), *Radical right-wing populist parties in Western Europe: Into the mainstream?* (pp. 268-282). Routledge.

Akkerman, T., de Lange, S. L., & Rooduijn, M. (2016a). Inclusion and mainstreaming? Radical right-wing populist parties in the new millennium. In T. Akkerman, S. L. de Lange, & M. Rooduijn (Eds.), *Radical right-wing populist parties in Western Europe: Into the mainstream?* (pp. 1-28). Routledge.

Akkerman, T., de Lange, S. L., & Rooduijn, M. (Eds.). (2016b). *Radical right-wing populist parties in Western Europe: Into the mainstream?* Routledge.

Anderson, T. W., & Rubin, H. (1949). Estimation of the parameters of a single equation in a complete system of stochastic equations. *Annals of Mathematical Statistics, 20*(1), 46-63.

Aprea, M., & Raitano, M. (2025). Income inequality in times of high inflation in Europe. *Structural Change and Economic Dynamics, 73*, 449-459. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.strueco.2025.02.011

Argente, D., & Lee, M. (2021). Cost of living inequality during the Great Recession. *Journal of the European Economic Association, 19*(2), 913-952. https://doi.org/10.1093/jeea/jvaa018

Arzheimer, K. (2013). Working-class parties 2.0? Competition between centre left and extreme right parties. In J. Rydgren (Ed.), *Class politics and the radical right* (pp. 75-90). Routledge.

Autor, D., Dorn, D., Hanson, G., & Majlesi, K. (2020). Importing political polarization? The electoral consequences of rising trade exposure. *American Economic Review, 110*(10), 3139-3183.

Beiser-McGrath, J., & Beiser-McGrath, L. F. (2020). Problems with products? Control strategies for models with interaction and quadratic effects. *Political Science Research and Methods, 8*(4), 707-730. https://doi.org/10.1017/psrm.2020.17

Bell, A., Fairbrother, M., & Jones, K. (2019). Fixed and random effects models: Making an informed choice. *Quality & Quantity, 53*, 1051-1074. https://doi.org/10.1007/s11135-018-0802-x

Bell, A., & Jones, K. (2015). Explaining fixed effects: Random effects modeling of time-series cross-sectional and panel data. *Political Science Research and Methods, 3*(1), 133-153. https://doi.org/10.1017/psrm.2014.7

Benedek, D., de Mooij, R. A., Keen, M., & Wingender, P. (2020). Varieties of VAT pass through. *International Tax and Public Finance, 27*(4), 890–930.

Benzarti, Y., Carloni, D., Harju, J., & Kosonen, T. (2020). What goes up may not come down: Asymmetric incidence of value-added taxes. *Journal of Political Economy, 128*(12), 4438-4474.

Bertrand, M., Duflo, E., & Mullainathan, S. (2004). How much should we trust differences-in-differences estimates? *Quarterly Journal of Economics, 119*(1), 249-275.

Blackwell, M., & Olson, M. P. (2022). Reducing model misspecification and bias in the estimation of interactions. *Political Analysis, 30*(4), 495-514. https://doi.org/10.1017/pan.2021.19

Bornschier, S., & Kriesi, H. (2013). The populist right, the working class, and the changing face of class politics. In J. Rydgren (Ed.), *Class politics and the radical right* (pp. 10–30). Routledge.

Borusyak, K., & Hull, P. (2023). Nonrandom exposure to exogenous shocks: Theory and applications. *Econometrica, 91*(6), 2155-2185.

Borusyak, K., Hull, P., & Jaravel, X. (2022). Quasi-experimental shift-share research designs. *Review of Economic Studies, 89*(1), 181-213.

Borusyak, K., Hull, P., & Jaravel, X. (2025). A practical guide to shift-share instruments. *Journal of Economic Perspectives, 39*(1), 181-204. https://doi.org/10.1257/jep.20231370

Brännlund, A., Amcoff, J., Österman, M., Peterson, L., & Brännlund, H. (2024). Jolts at the ballot box: Electricity prices and voting in Swedish manufacturing communities. *Energy Research & Social Science, 110*, 103419.

Brännlund, A., & Peterson, L. (2024). Power politics: How electric grievances shape election outcomes. *Ecological Economics, 217*, 108077.

Broxterman, D. A., & Larson, W. D. (2020). An empirical examination of shift-share instruments. *Journal of Regional Science, 60*(4), 677-711.

Bürkner, P.-C. (2017). brms: An R package for Bayesian multilevel models using Stan. *Journal of Statistical Software, 80*(1), 1-28.

Callaway, B., Goodman-Bacon, A., & Sant'Anna, P. H. C. (2024). *Difference-in-differences with a continuous treatment* (NBER Working Paper No. 32117). National Bureau of Economic Research.

Carbonnier, C. (2007). Who pays sales taxes? Evidence from French VAT reforms, 1987-1999. *Journal of Public Economics, 91*(5-6), 1219-1229. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jpubeco.2006.12.004

Chetty, R., Looney, A., & Kroft, K. (2009). Salience and taxation: Theory and evidence. *American Economic Review, 99*(4), 1145-1177.

Colantone, I., & Stanig, P. (2018). The trade origins of economic nationalism: Import competition and voting behavior in Western Europe. *American Journal of Political Science, 62*(4), 936-953.

Comparative Study of Electoral Systems. (n.d.). *CSES Integrated Module Dataset (IMD) and CSES Module 5* [Data sets]. https://www.cses.org

Dassonneville, R., & Hooghe, M. (2017). The noise of the vote recall question: The validity of the vote recall question in panel studies in Belgium, Germany, and the Netherlands. *International Journal of Public Opinion Research, 29*(2), 316-338.

Davies, J. C. (1962). Toward a theory of revolution. *American Sociological Review, 27*(1), 5-19.

de Chaisemartin, C., & D'Haultfœuille, X. (2020). Two-way fixed effects estimators with heterogeneous treatment effects. *American Economic Review, 110*(9), 2964-2996.

Dippel, C., Gold, R., Heblich, S., & Pinto, R. (2022). The effect of trade on workers and voters. *Economic Journal, 132*(641), 199-217.

Doležalová, J. (2015). Economic crisis and growth in vote share for extreme left and extreme right parties. *Review of Economic Perspectives, 15*(3), 269-290.

Döring, H., & Manow, P. (n.d.). *ParlGov: Parliaments and governments database* [Data set]. https://www.parlgov.org

Duch, R. M., & Stevenson, R. T. (2008). *The economic vote: How political and economic institutions condition election results*. Cambridge University Press.

European Central Bank. (2020). The role of indirect taxes in euro area inflation and its outlook. *ECB Economic Bulletin, 2020*(6).

https://www.ecb.europa.eu/press/economic-bulletin/focus/2020/html/ecb.ebbox202006_06~8a537e86c2.en.html

Eurostat. (n.d.). *Eurostat database* [Data set]. https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/data/database

Fairbrother, M. (2014). Two multilevel modeling techniques for analyzing comparative longitudinal survey datasets. *Political Science Research and Methods, 2*(1), 119-140. https://doi.org/10.1017/psrm.2013.24

Federle, J., Mohr, C., & Schularick, M. (2024). *Inflation surprises and election outcomes* (Kiel Working Paper No. 2278). Kiel Institute for the World Economy.

Funke, M., Schularick, M., & Trebesch, C. (2016). Going to extremes: Politics after financial crises, 1870–2014. *European Economic Review, 88*, 227-260.

Galofré-Vilà, G. (2023). Spoils of war: The political legacy of the German hyperinflation. *Explorations in Economic History, 88*, 101479.

Gelman, A., & Carlin, J. (2014). Beyond power calculations: Assessing Type S (sign) and Type M (magnitude) errors. *Perspectives on Psychological Science, 9*(6), 641-651. https://doi.org/10.1177/1745691614551642

Gelman, A., Jakulin, A., Pittau, M. G., & Su, Y.-S. (2008). A weakly informative default prior distribution for logistic and other regression models. *Annals of Applied Statistics, 2*(4), 1360–1383. https://doi.org/10.1214/08-AOAS191

Georgiadou, V., Rori, L., & Roumanias, C. (2018). Mapping the European far right in the 21st century: A meso-level analysis. *Electoral Studies, 54*, 103-115. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.electstud.2018.05.004

Georgiadou, V., Rori, L., & Roumanias, C. (2021). Estimating the far right vote with aggregate data. In S. D. Ashe, J. Busher, G. Macklin, & A. Winter (Eds.), *Researching the far right: Theory, method and practice* (pp. 111-131). Routledge.

Gidron, N., & Hall, P. A. (2017). The politics of social status: Economic and cultural roots of the populist right. *British Journal of Sociology, 68*(S1), S57–S84.

Giesselmann, M., & Schmidt-Catran, A. W. (2022). Interactions in fixed effects regression models. *Sociological Methods & Research, 51*(3), 1100–1127. https://doi.org/10.1177/0049124120914934

Goldsmith-Pinkham, P., Sorkin, I., & Swift, H. (2020). Bartik instruments: What, when, why, and how. *American Economic Review, 110*(8), 2586-2624. https://doi.org/10.1257/aer.20181047

Goodwin, M. J., & Cutts, D. (2013). Mobilizing the workers? Extreme right party support and campaign effects at the 2010 British general election. In J. Rydgren (Ed.), *Class politics and the radical right* (pp. 190–205). Routledge.

Gougou, F., & Mayer, N. (2013). The class basis of extreme right voting in France: Generational replacement and the rise of new cultural issues (1984-2007). In J. Rydgren (Ed.), *Class politics and the radical right* (pp. 156-172). Routledge.

Guiso, L., Herrera, H., Morelli, M., & Sonno, T. (2024). Economic insecurity and the demand for populism in Europe. *Economica, 91*(362), 588-620.

Hacker, J. S., Huber, G. A., Nichols, A., Rehm, P., Schlesinger, M., Valletta, R., & Craig, S. (2014). The Economic Security Index: A new measure for research and policy analysis. *Review of Income and Wealth, 60*(S1), S5–S32. https://doi.org/10.1111/roiw.12053

Hacker, J. S., Rehm, P., & Schlesinger, M. (2013). The insecure American: Economic experiences, financial worries, and policy attitudes. *Perspectives on Politics, 11*(1), 23-49.

Hainmueller, J., Mummolo, J., & Xu, Y. (2019). How much should we trust estimates from multiplicative interaction models? Simple tools to improve empirical practice. *Political Analysis, 27*(2), 163-192. https://doi.org/10.1017/pan.2018.46

Halikiopoulou, D., & Vlandas, T. (2020). When economic and cultural interests align: The anti-immigration voter coalitions driving far right party success in Europe. *European Political Science Review, 12*(4), 427-448.

Halikiopoulou, D., & Vlandas, T. (2022). *Understanding right-wing populism and what to do about it*. Friedrich-Ebert-Stiftung. https://ssrn.com/abstract=4122538

Heisig, J. P., & Schaeffer, M. (2019). Why you should always include a random slope for the lower-level variable involved in a cross-level interaction. *European Sociological Review, 35*(2), 258-279.

Held, A., & Patana, P. (2023). Rents, refugees, and the populist radical right. *Research & Politics, 10*(2), 1-9.

Hibbs, D. A., Jr. (1977). Political parties and macroeconomic policy. *American Political Science Review, 71*(4), 1467-1487.

Himmelweit, H. T., Biberian, M. J., & Stockdale, J. (1978). Memory for past vote: Implications of a study of bias in recall. *British Journal of Political Science, 8*(3), 365-375.

Hockett, R. C., & Omarova, S. T. (2016). Systemically significant prices. *Journal of Financial Regulation, 2*(1), 1-20. https://doi.org/10.1093/jfr/fjw007

Ivarsflaten, E. (2008). What unites right-wing populists in Western Europe? Re-examining grievance mobilization models in seven successful cases. *Comparative Political Studies, 41*(1), 3-23.

Ivlevs, A. (2014). Economic insecurity in transition: A primary commodities perspective. *Review of Income and Wealth, 60*(S1), S117–S140. https://doi.org/10.1111/roiw.12038

Jaeger, D. A., Ruist, J., & Stuhler, J. (2018). *Shift-share instruments and the impact of immigration* (NBER Working Paper No. 24285). National Bureau of Economic Research.

Jaravel, X. (2021). Inflation inequality: Measurement, causes, and policy implications. *Annual Review of Economics, 13*, 599-629. https://doi.org/10.1146/annurev-economics-091520-082042

Katz, R. S., & Mair, P. (2018). *Democracy and the cartelization of political parties*. Oxford University Press.

Kincaid, H. (2009). Causation in the social sciences. In H. Beebee, C. Hitchcock, & P. Menzies (Eds.), *The Oxford handbook of causation* (pp. 726-743). Oxford University Press.

Kleibergen, F., & Paap, R. (2006). Generalized reduced rank tests using the singular value decomposition. *Journal of Econometrics, 133*(1), 97-126.

Klick, J., & Stockburger, A. (2021). *Experimental CPI for lower and higher income households* (BLS Working Paper No. 537). U.S. Bureau of Labor Statistics.

Kurer, T. (2020). The declining middle: Occupational change, social status, and the populist right. *Comparative Political Studies, 53*(10–11), 1798-1835.

Lara Jauregui, J., Weber, I. M., Nassif Pires, L., & Teixeira, L. (2025). *Price shocks are redistribution shocks: Systemically significant prices for inequality in the United States* (Economics Department Working Paper). University of Massachusetts Amherst. https://doi.org/10.7275/y2da-6q37

Lipsitch, M., Tchetgen Tchetgen, E., & Cohen, T. (2010). Negative controls: A tool for detecting confounding and bias in observational studies. *Epidemiology, 21*(3), 383-388. https://doi.org/10.1097/EDE.0b013e3181d61eeb

Mair, P. (1994). Party organizations: From civil society to the state. In R. S. Katz & P. Mair (Eds.), *How parties organize: Change and adaptation in party organizations in Western democracies* (pp. 1-22). Sage.

Mair, P. (2014). *On parties, party systems and democracy: Selected writings of Peter Mair* (I. van Biezen, Ed.). ECPR Press.

Malgouyres, C. (2017). *Trade shocks and far-right voting: Evidence from French presidential elections* (EUI Working Paper RSCAS 2017/21). European University Institute.

Marion, J., & Muehlegger, E. (2011). Fuel tax incidence and supply conditions. *Journal of Public Economics, 95*(9-10), 1202-1212. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jpubeco.2011.04.003

Maroto, M., & Pettinicchio, D. (2023). Living on the edge: Institutional supports and perceptions of economic insecurity among people with disabilities and chronic health conditions. *Sociological Inquiry, 93*(3), 538-570.

Meguid, B. M. (2005). Competition between unequals: The role of mainstream party strategy in niche party success. *American Political Science Review, 99*(3), 347-359.

Menyhért, B. (2022). *The effect of rising energy and consumer prices on household finances, poverty and social exclusion in the EU: A preliminary empirical analysis* (EUR 31257 EN; JRC130650). Publications Office of the European Union. https://doi.org/10.2760/418422

Mood, C. (2010). Logistic regression: Why we cannot do what we think we can do, and what we can do about it. *European Sociological Review, 26*(1), 67-82.

Moulton, B. R. (1990). An illustration of a pitfall in estimating the effects of aggregate variables on micro units. *Review of Economics and Statistics, 72*(2), 334-338.

Müller-Rommel, F. (2016). Introduction: Political parties in changing democracies. In F. Müller-Rommel & F. Casal Bértoa (Eds.), *Party politics and democracy in Europe: Essays in honour of Peter Mair* (pp. 1-16). Routledge.

Mundlak, Y. (1978). On the pooling of time series and cross section data. *Econometrica, 46*(1), 69-85.

Oesch, D. (2008). Explaining workers' support for right-wing populist parties in Western Europe: Evidence from Austria, Belgium, France, Norway, and Switzerland. *International Political Science Review, 29*(3), 349-373.

Oesch, D. (2013). The class basis of the cleavage between the new left and the radical right: An analysis for Austria, Denmark, Norway and Switzerland. In J. Rydgren (Ed.), *Class politics and the radical right* (pp. 31-51). Routledge.

Oesch, D., & Rennwald, L. (2018). Electoral competition in Europe's new tripolar political space: Class voting for the left, centre-right and radical right. *European Journal of Political Research, 57*(4), 783-807.

Pallotti, F., Paz-Pardo, G., Slacalek, J., Tristani, O., & Violante, G. L. (2023). *Who bears the costs of inflation? Euro area households and the 2021-2022 shock* (ECB Working Paper Series No. 2877). European Central Bank. https://doi.org/10.2866/17302

Palmer, H. D., & Whitten, G. D. (1999). The electoral impact of unexpected inflation and economic growth. *British Journal of Political Science, 29*(4), 623-639.

Pirro, A. L. P. (2023). Far right: The significance of an umbrella concept. *Nations and Nationalism, 29*(1), 101-112. https://doi.org/10.1111/nana.12860

Powell, G. B., Jr., & Whitten, G. D. (1993). A cross-national analysis of economic voting: Taking account of the political context. *American Journal of Political Science, 37*(2), 391-414.

Rambachan, A., & Roth, J. (2023). A more credible approach to parallel trends. *Review of Economic Studies, 90*(5), 2555-2591.

Rao, M., Raschky, P. A., & Tombazos, C. G. (2018). Political extremism and economic activity. *Economics Letters, 170*, 59-62.

Rebechi, A., & Rohde, N. (2023). Economic insecurity, racial anxiety, and right-wing populism. *Review of Income and Wealth, 69*(3), 701-724.

Rooduijn, M., Pirro, A. L. P., Halikiopoulou, D., Froio, C., van Kessel, S., de Lange, S. L., Mudde, C., & Taggart, P. (2024). The PopuList: A database of populist, far-left, and far-right parties using expert-informed qualitative comparative classification (EiQCC). *British Journal of Political Science, 54*(3), 969-978.

Rose, D., & Harrison, E. (Eds.). (2010). *Social class in Europe: An introduction to the European Socio-economic Classification*. Routledge.

Rose, D., Harrison, E., & Pevalin, D. (2010). The European Socio-economic Classification: A prolegomenon. In D. Rose & E. Harrison (Eds.), *Social class in*

Europe: An introduction to the European Socio-economic Classification (pp. 3-38). Routledge.

Roth, J. (2022). Pretest with caution: Event-study estimates after testing for parallel trends. *American Economic Review: Insights, 4*(3), 305-322.

Rovny, J., Polk, J., Bakker, R., Hooghe, L., Jolly, S., Marks, G., Steenbergen, M., & Vachudova, M. A. (2025). The 2024 Chapel Hill Expert Survey on political party positioning in Europe: Twenty-five years of party positional data. *Electoral Studies, 97*, 102981.

Rydgren, J. (2013). Introduction: Class politics and the radical right. In J. Rydgren (Ed.), *Class politics and the radical right* (pp. 1-9). Routledge.

Schmidt-Catran, A. W., & Fairbrother, M. (2016). The random effects in multilevel models: Getting them wrong and getting them right. *European Sociological Review, 32*(1), 23-38. https://doi.org/10.1093/esr/jcv090

Shi, X., Miao, W., & Tchetgen Tchetgen, E. (2020). A selective review of negative control methods in epidemiology. *Current Epidemiology Reports, 7*, 190–202.

Simonsohn, U., Simmons, J. P., & Nelson, L. D. (2020). Specification curve analysis. *Nature Human Behaviour, 4*, 1208-1214.

Smallenbroek, O., Hertel, F. R., & Barone, C. (2024). Measuring class hierarchies in postindustrial societies: A criterion and construct validation of EGP and ESEC across 31 countries. *Sociological Methods & Research, 53*(3), 1412-1452. https://doi.org/10.1177/00491241221134522

Snijders, T. A. B., & Bosker, R. J. (2012). *Multilevel analysis: An introduction to basic and advanced multilevel modeling* (2nd ed.). Sage.

Staiger, D., & Stock, J. H. (1997). Instrumental variables regression with weak instruments. *Econometrica, 65*(3), 557-586.

Steegen, S., Tuerlinckx, F., Gelman, A., & Vanpaemel, W. (2016). Increasing transparency through a multiverse analysis. *Perspectives on Psychological Science, 11*(5), 702-712.

Thomson, H., & Snell, C. (2013). Quantifying the prevalence of fuel poverty across the European Union. *Energy Policy, 52*, 563-572.

van Buuren, S. (2018). *Flexible imputation of missing data* (2nd ed.). Chapman & Hall/CRC.

van der Brug, W., Fennema, M., de Lange, S., & Baller, I. (2013). Radical right parties: Their voters and their electoral competitors. In J. Rydgren (Ed.), *Class politics and the radical right* (pp. 52-74). Routledge.

van Elsas, E. J., Lubbe, R., van der Meer, T. W. G., & van der Brug, W. (2014). Vote recall: A panel study on the mechanisms that explain vote recall inconsistency. *International Journal of Public Opinion Research, 26*(1), 18-40.

Vehtari, A., Gelman, A., Simpson, D., Carpenter, B., & Bürkner, P.-C. (2021). Rank-normalization, folding, and localization: An improved $\hat{R}$ for assessing convergence of MCMC (with discussion). *Bayesian Analysis, 16*(2), 667-718.

Weber, I. M., Lara Jauregui, J., Teixeira, L., & Nassif Pires, L. (2024). Inflation in times of overlapping emergencies: Systemically significant prices from an input–output perspective. *Industrial and Corporate Change, 33*(2), 297-341. https://doi.org/10.1093/icc/dtad080

Weber, I. M., Thie, J.-E., Lara Jauregui, J., & Teixeira, L. (2026). Carbon prices and inflation in a world of shocks: Systemically significant prices and industrial policy targeting in Germany. *Energy Policy, 217*, 115395. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.enpol.2026.115395

Wiedemann, A. (2024). The electoral consequences of household indebtedness under austerity. *American Journal of Political Science, 68*(2), 354-371.

A17. Data and code availability

The repository that accompanies the paper (https://github.com/vgmirand/necessity_inflation_far_right_europe) holds this appendix in both languages and the material needed to rebuild the dataset and the estimates from the public sources. It contains the election-level file, with one row per election study of the universe (78 rows, with a flag for the 56 that enter the models) carrying the cycle window, the exposures BW and BNW, their constant-tax twins and tax wedges, WX, BW^{x} and BNW^{x}, the coverage diagnostics of A5.4 and the national controls; the region-level file, with one row per election × region cell carrying INS, IMM, PHY, SERV and the regional controls; the map from every CSES party code to a family, with the incumbency coding; the code that downloads the Eurostat series, builds the exposures and the indices, runs the verification step of A10.5, draws the stratified subsample of A10.4, estimates the models with the formulas, priors and sampler settings of A8 to A10 and runs the election-level diagnostics of A12; and the output tables of A12 and A15. The individual-level survey files of the CSES and of the Eurobarometer are not redistributed, under the terms of their providers; the code reads them from the original files, which are freely available from the CSES and from GESIS, and reproduces every quantity of the paper from them.